

# Political Science — Master Notes

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by Jakob V. Stangel

One running document for the whole course, organised by **Part → Lecture → readings**. Format per reading: **Résumé → ★ Heart of it → Key concepts → Section-by-section → Cases → Key terms → Exam pointers**.

## Overview — where everything is

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(Everything below is clickable — jump straight to a lecture, reading, case, or fun-facts box.)

### Part I • Political Systems & Institutions

- [Lecture 1: Introduction — Power, Politics & Political Science \(MDJ\)](#) — [OD Ch. 1: Introduction](#) • [Ansell Ch. 1](#) • [the chain, worked](#) • ★ [Fun facts](#)
- [Lecture 2: The State \(AUW\)](#) — [OD Ch. 2: The Modern State](#) • [OD Ch. 4: States & Identity](#) • ★ [Fun facts](#)
- [Lecture 3: Political Regimes \(FK\)](#) — [OD Ch. 3: States, Citizens & Regimes](#) • [regime taxonomy](#) • ★ [Fun facts](#)
- [Lecture 4: Systems of Government](#) — [OD Ch. 5: Governing Institutions](#) • [parliamentary vs presidential vs semi-presidential](#) • ★ [Fun facts](#)
- [Lecture 5: Participation and Representation \(FK\)](#) — [OD Ch. 6: Participation & Representation](#) • [what is representation?](#) (Pitkin) • [electoral systems compared](#) • ★ [Fun facts](#)
- [Lecture 6: Institutions and Institutionalisms \(AUW\)](#) — [Hall & Taylor: the 3 institutionalisms](#) • [RCI / HI / SI compared](#) • [Busemeyer & Thelen \(HI example\)](#) • ★ [Fun facts](#)

(All lectures so far fall under **Part I**. New lectures go under Part I until the syllabus introduces a new Part.)

## PART I • POLITICAL SYSTEMS & INSTITUTIONS

### Lecture 1: Introduction — Power, Politics, and Political Science (MDJ)

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Required reading: OD ch. 1 • Ansell (2023) ch. 1

**Core theme:** *What is politics, and how do we study it?* Two complementary lenses — OD gives you the **discipline's toolkit** (what [comparative politics](#) is + the main theory families), Ansell gives you a **single analytical engine** ([political economy](#): [self-interest](#) → [collective-action problems](#) → the need for political "promises").

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## OD Ch. 1 — Introduction

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**Book:** Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics: Concepts and Cases in Context*, 5th ed. (CQ Press/SAGE, 2021)

### Chapter résumé

The opening chapter defines the field and hands you the analytical vocabulary used for the rest of the book. It answers three "meta" questions — *what* comparative politics is, *why* to study it, and *how* comparativists do research — and then lays out the **three key questions** that organize the whole discipline: **What explains political behavior? Who rules? Where and why?** Most of the chapter is a guided tour of the competing **theory families** used to answer the first two questions. It closes with the book's plan (three parts) and its method of teaching through **eleven recurring country case studies**.

★ **The heart of the chapter:** the whole field collapses into **three questions** — *what explains behaviour?* · *who rules?* · *where & why?* — answered with the **Interests / Beliefs / Structures** and **Pluralist / Elite** frameworks, all read through **Lukes' three dimensions of power**. Master those and you can attack any comparative-politics question.

### Key concepts / "modes" to use

These are the analytical toolkits you're expected to *apply* to cases later:

- **Three dimensions of power** (Lukes) — the lens for spotting *where* power operates.
- **Empirical vs. normative theory** — always separate "what is" from "what *ought to be*."
- **Research methods** — single-case study · comparative method (most-similar / most-different systems) · quantitative statistics.
- **Explaining behavior** → **3 families:** Interests · Beliefs · Structures.
- **Who rules** → **2 families:** Pluralist vs. Elite theory.

### Section-by-section main points

#### Comparative Politics: What Is It? / How to Study It?

*What is politics?* (expanded with the lecture — MDJ)

- **OD's definition:** politics = "*the process by which human communities make collective decisions*" (any scale, village → international body). This is a **procedural** definition — it's about *how* decisions get made, not their content. Four implications:
  - **Group, not private, decisions** — it concerns the group.
  - **The whole community** — decisions normally bind everyone.
  - **The process** — focus is on the decision-making *process*.
  - **≠ polity / policy** — distinguish **politics** (the process) from **polity** (the rules/institutions) and **policy** (the outcomes).
- Also: the process applies **across regime types**, needn't involve **large groups**, and is **not necessarily inclusive** (decisions are often made by small, unelected groups).
- **The distributional definitions** (what OD's definition leaves out — *the distribution of resources*):

- **Lasswell (1936):** politics = "*who gets what, when, how.*"
- **Easton (1953):** politics = "*the authoritative allocation of values for a society.*"
- → politics as a **distributional game**: the capacity to distribute **material and non-material resources** (who wins, who loses).
- Two key **assumptions** behind this view: ① **scarcity** of resources (no scarcity → no distributional battle) and ② **preference heterogeneity** (people want different, often conflicting, things).
- **Comparative politics** = the subfield comparing power & decision-making *within* countries (contrast: **international relations** studies *between/beyond* states).
- **Power — the three faces / dimensions.** *This is the chapter's master concept — it recurs as the lens for every theory later, so know it cold.* The lecture runs **one example** (a parliamentary **tax increase**) through all three so the differences are clear:

| Face                         | Who (attribution)                   | Core idea                                                                                                    | The tax example                                                                                  | Power =                                |
|------------------------------|-------------------------------------|--------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|--------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|----------------------------------------|
| <b>1st · Decision-making</b> | <b>Dahl (1957)</b>                  | A gets B to do something B would not otherwise do — <b>observable</b> conflict & decisions                   | A majority in Parliament passes the tax increase despite strong opposition                       | <b>winning an observable decision</b>  |
| <b>2nd · Agenda-setting</b>  | <b>Bachrach &amp; Baratz (1962)</b> | Power through <b>non-decision-making</b> — keeping threatening issues <b>off the agenda</b> via rules/values | Powerful actors keep the tax increase off Parliament's agenda, so no debate or vote ever happens | <b>controlling what gets decided</b>   |
| <b>3rd · Ideological</b>     | <b>Lukes (1974)</b>                 | Shaping people's <b>wants, perceptions &amp; preferences</b> — even with <i>no observable conflict</i>       | People come to see taxing the wealthy as harmful/illegitimate, so the demand never even arises   | <b>shaping wants &amp; preferences</b> |

- **The difference in one line:** the 1st face is about *winning* a visible fight; the 2nd is about *stopping the fight from happening*; the 3rd is about *making sure no one wants to fight in the first place*. Power gets **less visible** as you go down.
- **Why it's central — the recurring pay-off:** each later theory is graded by *which dimension it can see*. Rational choice & pluralists see essentially only the **1st**; rational-choice institutionalists add the **2nd**; psychological theories, postmodern discourse, historical institutionalism and elite theory reach into the **2nd & 3rd**. Being able to say "this theory only captures the first dimension" is a core analytical move.
- **Worked example of the move (straight from the book):** *Rational choice* accepts people's preferences as **given** and only asks how they rationally pursue them — so it lives purely in the **1st dimension**, ignoring how preferences are *formed*. That is exactly why it "can't explain preferences in advance" and stumbles on the cross-national union puzzle (why French unions went communist while US unions chased only wages): it has no way to see the **3rd-dimensional** forces that *shaped* those preferences. **Psychological theories** and **historical institutionalists**, which do reach the 3rd dimension, are what step in to explain it. → *This is the template: name the theory, name the dimension(s) it can't see, then name a rival theory that reaches further.*

## Why Study Comparative Politics? — three benefits

1. Understand political events in specific countries (and inform foreign policy).

2. Draw **lessons** transferable from one place to another (e.g. presidential systems may worsen post-civil-war conflict — invisible if you only study the US).
3. Build **broad theories** of how politics works.

## How Do Comparativists Study Politics? — methods

- No lab: political actors *react* to being studied, so no perfect control.
- **Empirical theory** = explains what *does* occur (describe pattern → explain cause → predict). **Normative theory** = what *ought* to occur. The discipline is mostly empirical, but normative concerns shape which questions get asked (and that's legitimate).
- **Three research methods:**
  - **Single-case study** — deep dive into one case; generates/tests theory; *process tracing* links causes→effects; **deviant cases** expose theory limits. Never definitive beyond itself.
  - **Comparative method** — mimic the lab via careful case selection:
    - **Most-similar systems** — cases alike in many ways, differ on the key variable.
    - **Most-different systems** — cases differing in many ways but sharing the outcome (e.g. revolutions: France, Russia, China, Iran...).
  - **Quantitative statistical techniques** — reduce evidence to numbers, compare hundreds of cases (e.g. the civil-war & diamonds study: civil war driven more by *lootable resources* than ethnicity).
- **Scientific-method vocabulary:** theory · hypothesis · variable · **dependent** vs **independent** variable · **control**.
- Best modern scholarship *combines* methods (quant for patterns + case studies for causal depth).

## Three Key Questions in Comparative Politics

1. **What explains political behavior?** (core of all political science)
2. **Who rules?**
3. **Where and why?** (comparativists' distinctive contribution — the same explanation across different times/places?)

## Q1 — What Explains Political Behavior? → three answer-families

The chapter's (and the exam's) core. Each family splits into competing theories — below, each with its **core idea**, its **critique**, and which **face of power** it "sees." Learn the theory names + one line each.

- ① **Interests — behaviour** = actors pursuing their own preferences

| Theory                 | Core idea                                                                                                                                                                       | Critique                                                                                                                                                        | Sees face |
|------------------------|---------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|-----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|-----------|
| <b>Rational choice</b> | Rational individuals pursue self-defined <b>preferences</b> instrumentally (borrowed from economics; starts at the individual).                                                 | Can't know preferences <b>in advance</b> → weak predictive power; struggles with cross-country variation. Group-behaviour critics: <b>Achen &amp; Bartels</b> . | 1st       |
| <b>Psychological</b>   | <b>Non-rational</b> factors — personal experience, <b>emotions</b> , personality — shape behaviour ( <b>Petersen</b> on fear; <b>Hetherington &amp; Weiler</b> on personality). | Its focus on the individual makes <b>group</b> behaviour hard to explain.                                                                                       | 3rd       |

## ② Beliefs — behaviour = values & ideas

| Theory                    | Core idea                                                                                                                                                                                                                                                                                              | Critique                                                                                                                                 | Sees face |
|---------------------------|--------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|-----------|
| <b>Political culture</b>  | Shared <b>attitudes, values, symbols</b> shape behaviour.<br><i>Modernist</i> : clear, identifiable civic values (Almond & Verba's <b>civic culture</b> ; <b>postmaterialist</b> shift, Inglehart).<br><i>Postmodernist</i> : culture = symbols open to interpretation in <b>discourse</b> (Foucault). | Do countries really have <i>one</i> culture? Culture may be an <b>effect</b> , not a cause; postmodernism accused of explaining nothing. | 2nd–3rd   |
| <b>Political ideology</b> | A <b>systematic, conscious belief-set</b> guides action (liberalism, communism, fascism).                                                                                                                                                                                                              | May just <b>justify</b> actions really driven by <u>self-interest</u> or culture.                                                        | 3rd       |

## ③ Structures — behaviour = shaped & limited by broad structures

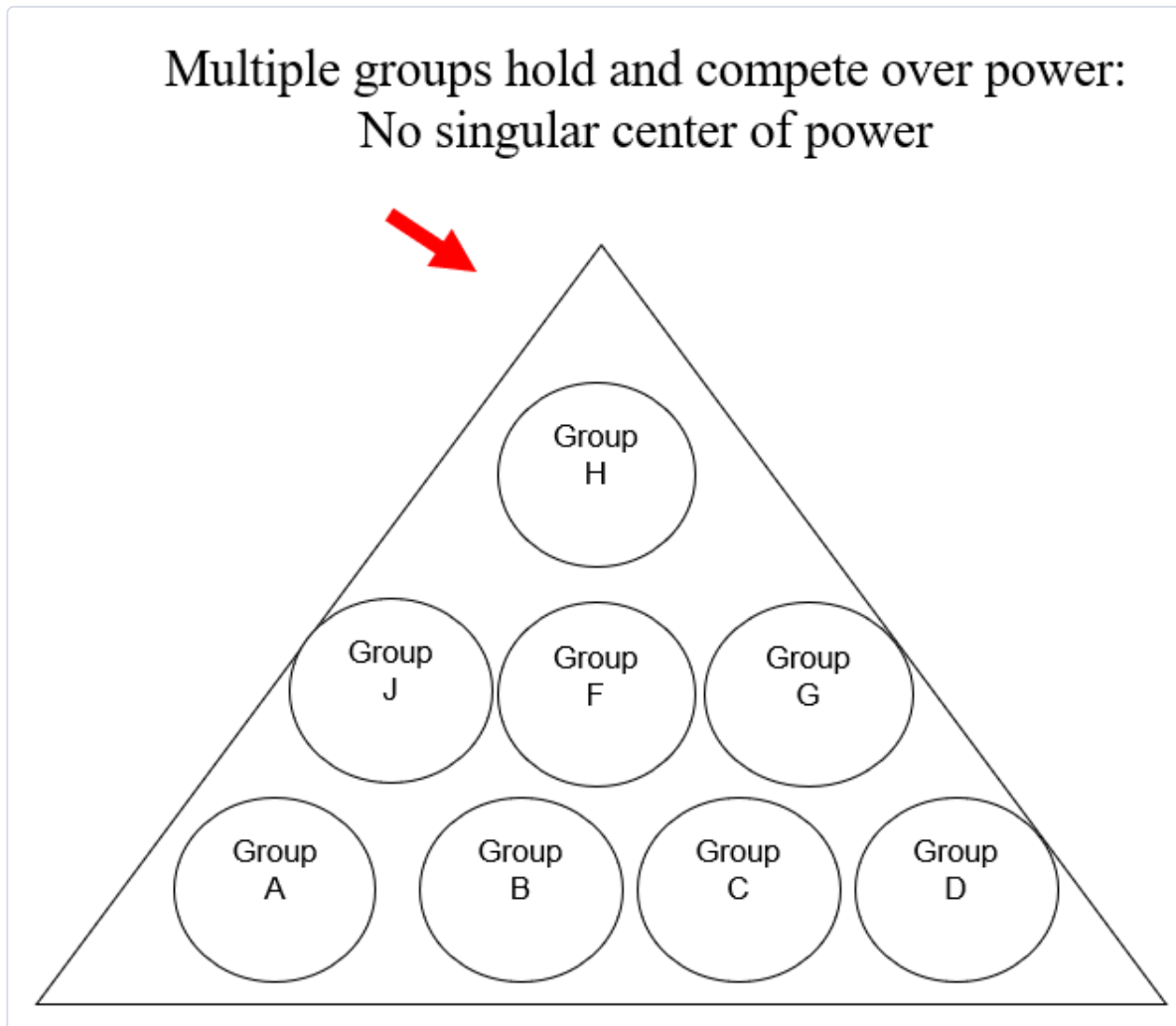
| Theory                  | Core idea                                                                                                                                                                                                                                  | Critique                                                                                            | Sees face                     |
|-------------------------|--------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|-----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|-------------------------------|
| <b>Marxism</b>          | Behaviour explained by <b>class conflict</b> rooted in the economic system (bourgeoisie vs proletariat — <b>Marx</b> ).                                                                                                                    | Overlooks <b>non-economic</b> motives (religion, nationalism) and other sources of power.           | 2nd–3rd                       |
| <b>Institutionalism</b> | <b>Institutions — the "rules of the game"</b> — shape behaviour ( <i>rational-choice institutionalist</i> , <b>Weingast</b> ; <i>historical institutionalist</i> , <b>Haggard &amp; Kaufman</b> ; e.g. the <u>US two-term tradition</u> ). | Institutions may <b>reflect</b> <u>self-interest</u> or culture rather than <i>cause</i> behaviour. | 2nd (RC) / all 3 (historical) |

## Q2 — Who Rules? → two answer-families

- **Pluralist theories** (classic statement: **Robert Dahl**, *Who Governs?* 1961) — society = many competing groups; power *dispersed*; no group wins permanently; policy = compromise. (Thinks mostly in the **1st dimension** of power.) Claims to apply even to authoritarian states (Soviet factions; African patron–client networks).
- **Elite theories** — every society ruled by a small elite controlling ~all power (uses **2nd & 3rd dimensions**). Variants:
  - **Marxism** — ruling class = owners of the economy (bourgeoisie); state = "executive committee of the bourgeoisie."
  - **Power elite** (C. Wright Mills) — interlocking economic + political + military elites.

- **Oligarchy** (Winters) — extreme wealth as power, used to protect wealth.
- **Patriarchy** (feminist) — rule by men; politics/military tied to masculinity.
- **Racial elite** / "new Jim Crow" (Alexander) — one race maintains dominance via law, wealth, discourse.
- **Test for who rules:** Who holds formal power? Who influences decisions? Who benefits? → few = elite; many = pluralist.

Visualising it (from the lecture):



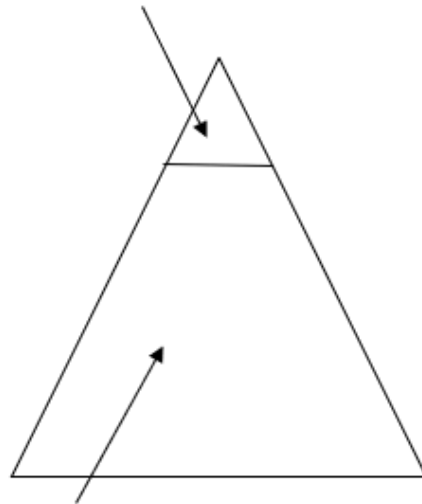
- Multiple groups, but few (elites) hold power

**Elite:**

Government,  
corporations.

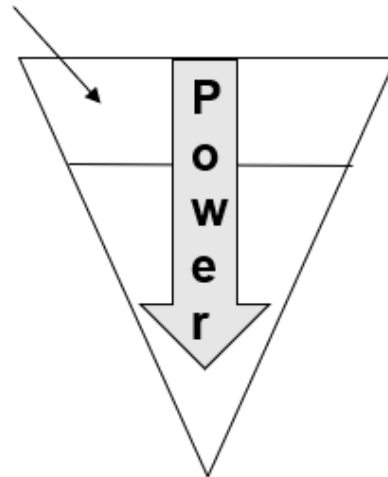
**Elite power:**

- Disproportional to size
- Governs society



**Society: Public, organisations**

- Largest group(s)  
with little power



**How to read them.** *Pluralist* (first diagram): power is **dispersed** among many competing groups — *no single centre*. *Elitist* (second): a **small elite** (government, corporations) sits at the top and holds power **disproportionate to its size**, while the **largest group** — **the public/society** — **has little power**; the inverted triangle shows **power flowing down** onto them. Same society, opposite claim about where power really sits.

### Q3 — Where and Why?

- Add the **comparative dimension** to Q1 & Q2: why do welfare states differ (see the [Sweden vs US welfare state case](#))? Explanations compete — rational choice / ideology / institutions. Comparison across cases reveals patterns a single case hides.

### Plan of the Book

- **Part I** — the state (what it is, strong/weak; state–citizen–regime; state–identity).
- **Part II** — how political systems work (democratic & authoritarian institutions; participation; regime change).
- **Part III** — [political economy & policy](#).
- **11 recurring country cases**: 4 wealthy democracies (Britain, Germany, Japan, US); 2 post-communist (China, Russia); largest enduring democracy (India); the one theocracy (Iran); 3 post-authoritarian democracies (Brazil, Mexico, Nigeria).

## Cases & examples

The concrete cases the chapter uses. Each one: *what actually happened* → *what it illustrates*.

- **Tunisia vs Syria (2011)**. Both were swept up in the Arab Spring protests, yet the outcomes split completely: Tunisia negotiated a relatively **peaceful transition to democracy**, while Syria collapsed into a long, brutal **civil war**. → *Illustrates*: why comparison matters — understanding a country's internal dynamics has real foreign-policy stakes; it also undercuts the lazy claim that "Arab/Islamic culture" is uniformly anti-democratic (same culture-family, opposite results).
- **Post-civil-war presidentialism**. Americans treat their directly-elected presidency as *the* stable model. But in a country just out of civil war it's **winner-take-all**: only one side's candidate can win the top job, so the losers may prefer to **restart the war** than live with the result. A **power-sharing** system that gives every major group a slice of national power tends to be safer. → *Illustrates*: a lesson you simply cannot see by studying the US alone — the payoff of comparison.
- **Civil war & diamonds** (Collier & Hoeffler; **Sierra Leone**). A large **quantitative** study of hundreds of civil wars found that **ethnic division is not the main cause** people assume. War is far more likely where a group can seize a **valuable, lootable resource** — like the diamonds fuelling Sierra Leone's 1990s war. Where there's no such prize, ethnic division rarely turns violent. → *Illustrates*: the quantitative method + a genuinely counter-intuitive finding.
- **Ukraine 2014** — "is it a civil war?" When fighting erupted in 2014 (with a Russian military presence backing one side), scholars couldn't cleanly classify it: *how much* violence, for *how long*, before it "counts" as a civil war? → *Illustrates*: the hard first step of any scientific study — **defining and measuring your variables** precisely.
- **Almond & Verba, *The Civic Culture* (1963)**. They surveyed citizens across five countries and argued that stable democracies (US, UK) share a "**civic culture**" — people participate *and* defer enough to let leaders govern — whereas **Mexico** had a "**subject**" culture (citizens saw themselves as subjects, not participants), fitting its authoritarian rule until 2000. → *Illustrates*: the classic **modernist** political-culture claim — and the standard critique that culture may be an *effect* of institutions, not their cause.
- **US Catholics shifting Democrat → Republican**. Mid-20th-c. working-class Catholics voted **Democrat** on economic interest. As they grew affluent, they came to prioritise **moral/cultural** issues (e.g. abortion) and drifted **Republican**. → *Illustrates*: **postmaterialism** (Inglehart) — political culture changing over time and reshaping party alignments.
- **"Family values" (Reagan vs Clinton)**. No US politician dares oppose "family values," yet the phrase has **no fixed meaning**: Reagan's Republicans used it to claim the traditional middle-class family; Clinton's Democrats **reinterpreted** it to mean single mothers and two-income families needing afterschool programmes. → *Illustrates*: the **postmodernist** point — political symbols are contested and redefined through **discourse** (a play for the 3rd dimension of power).
- **Unions: France / US / UK**. Same institution, three preference-sets: **French** unions tied themselves to the **Communist Party** and pursued broad ideological goals; **US** unions stayed "bread-and-butter" (wages & conditions), shunning socialist parties; **British** unions built their own **Labour Party**. → *Illustrates*: the puzzle for **rational choice** — it takes preferences as given, so it can't explain *why* they differ so sharply across countries (this is the worked example above).
- **US two-term tradition** (Washington → FDR). Washington voluntarily stepped down after two terms; **no president broke the norm for 150+ years** until FDR won a third term in **1940** — after which it was written into the Constitution (22nd Amendment). → *Illustrates*: an **informal institution** that shaped behaviour purely because leaders and citizens believed it *should*.

- **Chile's democratic transition (1990s)**. One of the most successful exits from military rule — explained three different ways: **rational-choice institutionalists** (elites cut a strategic constitutional bargain that served their interests), **political-culture** theorists (Chilean values favoured democracy), **historical institutionalists** (Chile could revive its earlier stable democratic institutions, a legacy neighbours lacked). → *Illustrates*: how the **same event** gets three competing explanations — and the analyst's job is to weigh them.
- **Sweden vs US welfare state**. Sweden runs a large, expensive welfare state; the US spends far less. Why do two rich democracies diverge? **Interests**: strong labour won in Sweden, business overpowered labour in the US. **Beliefs**: Sweden's dominant Socialists spread social-democratic ideology; US "make it on your own" culture rejects socialism. **Institutions**: Sweden's unified labour body (LO) became central to policymaking; US unions stayed decentralised and weak. → *Illustrates*: the lead "**Where and why?**" puzzle, with one answer from each theory family.
- **US corporate power / oligarchy** (Winters). Is the US genuinely democratic if a **corporate elite** holds outsized power? Winters argues extreme wealth ("material power") lets **oligarchs** hire lawyers and lobbyists to shield their income from redistribution. → *Illustrates*: a "**Who rules?**" case pitting elite theory against pluralism.

**The 11 recurring countries** (used across the whole book): Britain, Germany, Japan, USA (wealthy democracies) • China, Russia (post-communist) • India (largest democracy) • Iran (theocracy) • Brazil, Mexico, Nigeria (post-authoritarian).

## Key terms

| Term                                | Meaning                                                                                                      |
|-------------------------------------|--------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Politics                            | Process by which communities make collective decisions (procedural; group, whole community, ≠ polity/policy) |
| Polity / Policy                     | The rules & institutions / the outcomes (vs <i>politics</i> = the process)                                   |
| Distributional game                 | Politics as allocating resources — "who gets what" (Lasswell; Easton)                                        |
| Scarcity / Preference heterogeneity | The two assumptions behind the distributional view of politics                                               |
| Comparative politics                | Subfield comparing power/decision-making across countries                                                    |
| Three faces of power                | (1) decision-making, Dahl; (2) agenda-setting, Bachrach & Baratz; (3) ideological, Lukes                     |
| Empirical / Normative theory        | Explains what <i>does</i> / what <i>ought to</i> occur                                                       |
| Single-case study                   | Deep study of one case (uses process tracing)                                                                |
| Comparative method                  | Careful case selection: most-similar vs most-different systems                                               |
| Rational choice theory              | Actors rationally pursue self-defined preferences                                                            |
| Political culture                   | Widely held attitudes/values/symbols about politics                                                          |
| Civic culture                       | Culture supporting stable democracy (Almond & Verba)                                                         |
| Political ideology                  | Conscious systematic belief-set about how politics <i>ought to be</i>                                        |
| Institutionalism                    | Institutions ("rules of the game") explain behavior                                                          |
| Pluralist theory                    | Power dispersed among competing groups                                                                       |
| Elite theory                        | A small elite controls virtually all power                                                                   |
| Patriarchy                          | Rule by men                                                                                                  |

## Exam pointers

- Be able to **apply the 3 dimensions of power** to an example, and say which theory family "sees" which dimension.
- Know the **Interests / Beliefs / Structures** trichotomy for Q1 and **Pluralist vs Elite** for Q2 — with one named theorist per box (the names are in the two tables above: e.g. Interests → *Achen & Bartels / Petersen*; Beliefs → *Almond & Verba, Inglehart, Foucault*; Structures → *Marx, Weingast*; Pluralist → *Dahl*; Elite → *Mills, Winters, Alexander*).
- Distinguish **most-similar vs most-different** systems designs with an example.
- Always flag **empirical vs normative** when a question mixes them.

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## Ansell — *Why Politics Fails*, Ch. 1

**Book:** Ben Ansell (2023), *Why Politics Fails: The Five Traps of the Modern World – and How to Escape Them*, Penguin.

Note: the provided PDF is titled "**Introduction: Simple Problems, Impossible Politics**" — this is the framing chapter the syllabus lists as "chapter 1." It sets up the whole book.

## Chapter résumé

Ansell argues that our biggest challenges (climate change is the opening example) are often "**simple problems with impossible politics**": we understand the solution but can't get people to act. The reason is **political economy** — individuals are **self-interested**, and **self-interest** predictably collides with the collective good, producing **collective-action problems**. He introduces the **five goals** we broadly agree on — **Democracy, Equality, Solidarity, Security, Prosperity** — each of which is also a **trap**. Politics is fundamentally about making **collective promises** to each other; but promises can't be externally enforced, so they only work when made **self-enforcing** through **institutions** and **norms**. The book's project: learn to spot the five traps and escape them.

★ **The heart of the chapter:** one chain explains why politics fails — **self-interest** → **collective-action problem** → **tragedy of the commons** → **the need for self-enforcing political promises (institutions & norms)**. If you learn one thing here, learn to run that chain.

## Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **Political economy** — model individuals as self-interested utility-maximizers, then scale up to society.
- **Self-interest** → **preferences** → **constraints** → **trade-offs** — the micro engine.
- **Collective-action problem** — self-interested individuals undermine a shared goal.
- **Tragedy of the commons & externalities** (negative/positive) — the recurring failure shapes.
- **Politics as promises** — collective, unenforceable, needing **self-enforcing** design.
- **Institutions** (formal rules) & **norms** (informal expectations) — what makes promises stick.
- **The Five Traps:** Democracy · Equality · Solidarity · Security · Prosperity.

## Section-by-section main points

### Opening — Simple Problems, Impossible Politics

- Climate change: science is a century old and well understood; the road from emissions → warming is *simple*. The hard part is getting anyone to act — a **global problem with domestic politics**. No world government to enforce, so everyone free-rides.
- International attempts show politics *can* work (Paris 2015) or fail (Kyoto, Copenhagen) — success came from flexibility, vague wording, deferral.
- Climate tests all **five** goals: democracy (global consensus?), equality (should richer pay more?), solidarity (do rich nations owe poor?), security (climate refugees, enforcement?), prosperity (short-term gain vs long-term survival).

### Common ground

- **Politics** = how we make collective decisions / make promises to each other in an uncertain world. Essential for solving shared dilemmas.

- **Double-edged sword:** we need politics but hate it; we look for alternatives (markets, technology, strong leaders) but these are "**false gods**" — they still run into human disagreement.
- Disagreement is **inevitable** (elections have losers; spending is unequal; who guards the guards?). Push politics down in one place, it pops up elsewhere ("paste in the toothpaste tube").
- Despite polarization, most people **agree on five things** — which are also five **traps**.

## | The five goals (each a trap)

- **Democracy** — right/ability of the mass public to choose and replace leaders. ~½ the world lives in democracies; broadly popular (86% in World Values Survey favor it) but under pressure (the "third wave" stalled; populism, referendums, attacks on media/expertise).
- **Equality** — everyone treated the same; but debate over *outcomes* vs *opportunities* and redistribution. Wide consensus that income gaps are too large (2019: only 7% disagreed), yet inequality has *risen* in rich countries since the 1980s → populist backlash ("inequality paradox").
- **Solidarity** — support for fellow citizens in hard times (illness, bad luck). Underpins popular "third-rail" policies (US Social Security, UK NHS). COVID-19 showed global health interdependence.
- **Security** — the most basic desire: to be safe. 70% prefer security over freedom (highest where war is recent). Concerns: violence *within* states, police violence ("who guards us from our protectors?"), return of interstate war (Ukraine).
- **Prosperity** — enough money to live/grow; but endless growth warms the planet → trade-off between prosperity and environmental survival.

## | Political economy (the method)

- The school of thought taking seriously how individual and society interact: start with a **model of each of us** (what we want + how we plan to get it), then pan out to society and watch **best-laid plans undermined by... us**.
- **Basic model:** everyone is **self-interested** — has ordered **preferences** and tries to **maximize utility** (pick the highest-value option). Not an ethical claim — a *predictive analytical tool*.
- **Methodological individualism:** start from individuals, not classes/cultures/groups.
- **Constraints & trade-offs:** you can't have everything (physical, institutional, social limits) → every choice sacrifices an alternative (coffee vs tea; lower taxes vs social liberalism at the ballot box).
- Even **voting** is a puzzle: your single vote is unlikely to be decisive, so turnout must be partly explained by a sense of **duty**. Politicians too are self-interested (must win elections → campaign arms race).
- Studying self-interest is **liberating**, not cynical: even apparently selfless behavior often has a self-interested logic (e.g. the rich opposing public-education spending that "devalues" their kids' advantage).

## | Collective-action problems

- When self-interested individuals interact, they can inadvertently wreck a shared goal.
- **Example — the Cod Wars** (Britain vs Iceland, 1950s–70s): overfishing a shared resource.
- **Tragedy of the commons:** without ownership, everyone fishes freely → stocks collapse; my self-interest hurts yours.
- **Externalities:** a market action's effect on a third party — mostly **negative** (pollution, congestion), sometimes **positive** (a neighbor's rose garden). Political life is "full of externalities."

- Root cause: we are **interdependent** — my choice affects your options — and we can't commit others (or ourselves) to "do the right thing." *The making of a tragedy*.

## Politics as a promise

- We're *smart*: we anticipate what others will do — which is exactly why collective-action problems arise (can't blame "stupidity").
- Politics = making **collective promises** (politicians→voters, allies→adversaries). A **promise** ≠ a **contract**: it **can't be legally enforced by a third party** — there's *no higher power than politics itself*.
- So political promises are **fragile and temporary**; they succeed only when **self-enforcing** — designed so that reneging is hard.
- Two tools to grant promises permanence:
  - **Institutions** — formal rules/organizations that lock in expectations (e.g. the **US Senate filibuster**: powerful, flawed, over-represents small states, hard to remove safely — shows institutions structure behavior even when dysfunctional).
  - **Norms** — informal expectations about how we should behave; invisible but powerful, vaguer and harder to enforce than rules; not every leader can invoke them.
- Because institutions & norms vary, **politics plays out differently around the world** (e.g. Nordic high-trust, inclusive systems are hard to transplant).

## The traps (close)

- Each of the five goals faces a **trap triggered by self-interest** that blocks the collective goal. Traps aren't destiny — but they're **insidious, pervasive, even enticing**.
- Two options: spot the traps "in the wild" and step around them, or — if already caught — learn to **escape**. *Only by understanding why politics fails can we make it succeed*.

**The chain, run once (worked)**. This is the single argument the whole chapter builds — here it is end-to-end on the Cod Wars:

1. **Self-interest**. Every fisherman, British and Icelandic, tries to maximise his *own* catch (the political-economy starting model).
2. → **Collective-action problem**. They're **interdependent** — fishing the *same* sea — so each one acting on self-interest undermines the shared goal (a sustainable stock). Individually rational, collectively ruinous.
3. → **Tragedy of the commons / externality**. The sea is **unowned and hard to monitor**, so no one can be excluded → everyone overfishes → the stock collapses (**tragedy of the commons**). Put the other way: my extra catch imposes a cost on you — a **negative externality**.
4. → **Need for political promises**. We'd all be better off with a binding catch limit, but there's **no world government** to enforce one — so the *states* must make **political promises** to each other on behalf of their fishermen.
5. → **Institutions & norms**. A promise can't be enforced by any third party, so it only holds if it's **self-enforcing** — locked in by **institutions** (formal rules: recognised fishing limits/zones) and **norms** (informal expectations). When Iceland kept *extending* its limits, the promise broke and new ones were needed — "*politics never ends*."

**Reusable template (works on any trap)**: name the self-interest → show the **interdependence** that makes it a collective-action problem → identify the commons/externality failure → state the **promise** that would fix it → name the **institution/norm** that could make the promise stick.

## Key terms

| Term                      | Meaning                                                            |
|---------------------------|--------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Political economy         | Study of how self-interested individuals and society interact      |
| Self-interest             | Model assumption: people pursue their own ordered preferences      |
| Utility maximization      | Choosing the option that yields the highest personal value         |
| Constraint / trade-off    | Limits force sacrifice of one option for another                   |
| Collective-action problem | Self-interested individuals undermine a shared goal                |
| Tragedy of the commons    | Unowned shared resource gets over-exploited                        |
| Externality               | Effect of a transaction on a third party (negative/positive)       |
| Politics-as-promise       | Collective promises that no third party can enforce                |
| Self-enforcing            | Arrangement where reneging is made costly/hard                     |
| Institution               | Formal rule/organization locking in expectations (e.g. filibuster) |
| Norm                      | Informal expectation about proper behavior                         |
| The Five Traps            | Democracy, Equality, Solidarity, Security, Prosperity              |

## Exam pointers

- Memorize the **five goals/traps** (Democracy, Equality, Solidarity, Security, Prosperity) — the spine of the whole book.
- Be able to **run the chain**: self-interest → collective-action problem → tragedy of the commons/externalities → need for political promises → institutions & norms (*worked end-to-end above*).
- Use the **Cod Wars** / **tragedy of the commons** as your go-to worked example.
- Key distinction: a **promise** (unenforceable, needs to be self-enforcing) vs a **contract** (third-party enforced).

## Bridge to OD

Both readings converge on **institutions** and on modelling actors via **interests/self-interest** (OD's "Interests" family = Ansell's political-economy engine). Ansell's "politics = collective decisions" is almost verbatim OD's definition of **politics**. Good to cite them together on *why institutions matter*.

## ★ Fun facts & memorable details

The sticky examples, surprising stats and quotable lines from this module — the stuff worth dropping into an essay or exam answer.

### Memorable examples (great to cite)

- **The Cod Wars** (Britain vs Iceland, 1950s–70s): two NATO allies clashing over cod — boats rammed, one accidental death by electrocution, and Icelandic coastguards fitting **wire-cutters** to slash British trawler

nets. A perfect little tragedy-of-the-commons story. (Ansell)

- **Civil war & diamonds:** statistical research (Collier & Hoeffler) found civil wars are driven more by control of **lootable resources** — diamonds, e.g. Sierra Leone — than by ethnic division. (OD)
- **The "new Jim Crow"** (Michelle Alexander): mass incarceration reframed as a modern system of racial control. (OD)
- **George Washington's two-term tradition:** an *informal* institution that held for 150+ years until FDR broke it in 1940 — then it was locked into the Constitution. (OD)
- **"Family values"** as a contested symbol — Reagan's Republicans and Clinton's Democrats each reinterpreted it (the postmodernist point about discourse). (OD)

### Surprising stats

- **86%** worldwide (World Values Survey) say democracy is a good way to run a country — and in **China, Ethiopia, Iran & Tajikistan over 90%** agree with pro-democracy statements, *more* than in the US. (Ansell)
- **~70%** say they'd prefer **security over freedom** — highest where war is recent. (Ansell)
- **~95%** across wealthy countries think government should provide healthcare — even **85% in the US**. (Ansell)
- **2016** was, by some counts, the **most violent year since WWII**. (Ansell)

### Quotable lines

- Marx: the modern state is "*the executive committee of the whole bourgeoisie*." (OD)
- Keynes: "*In the long run we are all dead*." — on why forecasting fails. (Ansell)
- Ansell on the inescapability of politics: push it down in one place and it pops up in another, "*like the proverbial paste in the toothpaste tube*."
- The **NHS** as Britain's "*national religion*." (Ansell)

### Trivia

- OD's example of why natural science can be "purer": South Korea's **Woo Suk Hwang faked stem-cell results** — but biologists don't get *normatively* attached to findings the way political scientists do.
- The CO<sub>2</sub>-warming theory dates to **1861**, revived in a **1956 New York Times** piece imagining "tigers roaming... and squawking Arctic parrots." (Ansell)

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## Lecture 2: The State (AUW)

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**Required reading:** OD ch. 2 (*The Modern State*) • OD ch. 4 (*States and Identity*)

**Theme of the lecture:** the **state** itself — first *what a modern state is* and why some are strong while others fail (ch. 2), then how **identity** (nation, ethnicity, race, class, religion, gender, sexuality) becomes the central challenge to the state and to the liberal ideal of equal citizenship (ch. 4). Ch. 2 gives you the **anatomy** of the state; ch. 4 shows the **fault lines** running through it.

**Lecture frame (AUW — Ayça Uygur Wessel).** The lecture hangs both chapters on **four questions** — use them as the skeleton:

1. **What is a state?** → the four characteristics (OD Ch. 2).
2. **Where did states come from?** → two pathways: **European (war-driven)** & **colonial**.
3. **Why are some states stronger than others?** → theories of **strength & weakness**.

4. Who does the state represent? → the **nation** / **identity** puzzle (OD Ch. 4).

State ≠ Nation ≠ Regime ≠ Government (*memorise the one-liners*):

- **State** — the *permanent administrative apparatus*.
- **Nation** — a *group of people with a shared sense of belonging*.
- **Regime** — the *fundamental rules* of the state (its type).
- **Government** — the *people who currently run* the state.

Two exam-style puzzles the lecture poses:

- *What comes first?* Is there a neat causal order **Territory** → **Sovereignty** → **Legitimacy** → **Bureaucracy**, or are the four **mutually reinforcing**? (Best answer: mostly mutually reinforcing — bureaucracy raises the tax that funds the army that defends the territory that grounds sovereignty...)
- **Greenland**: rate its characteristics — strong on **territory**, but weak external sovereignty (part of Denmark). Shows the characteristics come in **degrees**, not all-or-nothing.

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## OD Ch. 2 — The Modern State

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Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 2.

### Chapter résumé

Defines the **modern state** — the foundational unit of comparative politics — and separates it from *country*, *nation*, *government*, and *regime*. It argues every modern state shares **four characteristics** (territory, external/internal sovereignty, legitimacy, bureaucracy) that make it an exceptionally powerful ruling apparatus. It traces the state's **historical origins** (first in Europe, 15th–18th c., then exported worldwide by colonialism, universal only by the 1960s) and explains why states vary in **strength** (the strong/weak/failed spectrum, political goods, the resource curse, quasi-states). ~Half the chapter is eleven country case studies ranked strongest→weakest — so weight your revision toward the cases.

★ **The heart of the chapter**: a modern state = **four characteristics** (territory • external + internal sovereignty • legitimacy • bureaucracy); *how fully a state has them* decides whether it is **strong, weak, or failed**. Use the four as a checklist on any case.

**The red thread**. One question runs through the whole chapter: **does an entity have the four characteristics — and how fully?** That single test defines what a state is (the characteristics), explains where states *came from* (building the four via war & colonialism), and grades why they *differ in strength* (strong = has all four; failed = has lost them). Every case is scored on the same four.

### Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **The four characteristics of the modern state** — the analytic backbone: **territory • external & internal sovereignty • legitimacy • bureaucracy**.
- **Sovereignty split**: *external* (recognised independence from outside powers) vs *internal* (sole law-making/enforcing authority inside) — they can come apart.
- **Weber's monopoly on the legitimate use of force** — the state claims to be the only body that may legitimately coerce.

- **Weber's three types of legitimacy** — traditional • charismatic • rational-legal.
- **Strong / weak / failed state** — a *continuum* measured by whether the state supplies political goods (security, rule of law, infrastructure).
- **Ideal type** — no real state matches the model perfectly; use it as a yardstick.

## Section-by-section main points

### What is a state? — state vs. the rest

**Core:** don't confuse the four — **state** (the apparatus) ≠ **government** (who runs it now) ≠ **regime** (the type of rules) ≠ **nation** (a people).

- A **state** = "an ongoing administrative apparatus that develops and administers laws and implements policies in a specific territory." **Government** = the transient occupants (US: "administrations"); **regime** = the *type* of government (liberal democracy, fascism — ch. 3); **nation** = a people with shared identity (ch. 4); **country** = too vague for analysis.

### The four characteristics of a state (*heavily emphasised*)

**Core:** four features together make the state a uniquely powerful ruling apparatus — **the checklist you score every case on.**

- ① **Territory** — clearly defined borders; sizes range from Russia (6.5m sq mi) to micro-states under 200 sq mi. Borders still shift (Kosovo 2008, South Sudan 2011), usually to align state with nation.
- ② **External vs internal sovereignty** — *external* = recognised independence (counter-examples: colonies, Vichy France, Manchukuo — had territory/government but externally controlled); *internal* = sole authority to make/enforce law, defended against secession. A state needs *others to recognise it* (see the Somaliland case). Sovereignty ≠ omnipotence.
- ③ **Legitimacy** — the recognised right to rule; boosts sovereignty *far more cheaply than force*. **Weber's three types:** **traditional** (long-standing custom — divine right of kings), **charismatic** (personal virtue/heroism — early Mao), **rational-legal** (leaders chosen by accepted laws — elected under a constitution; Weber's marker of *modern* rule). In practice regimes **blend all three**. Collier: without legitimacy you get **repression, conflict, or "theater."**
- ④ **Bureaucracy** — appointed officials who implement law (collect tax, run the army, pave roads). Weak legitimacy + weak bureaucracy = the two key drivers of state weakness.

### Where did states come from? — two pathways (*moderate*)

**Core:** the four characteristics were **built two ways** — Europe by *war & competition*, the rest by *colonial conquest* — and the route shapes later capacity.

① **European pathway** — "war made the state" (Charles Tilly). A causal flow driven by **military competition**:

**Feudalism** (overlapping authorities) → **absolute monarchies** (consolidate territory & sovereignty; "*L'état, c'est moi*" — state not yet separate from the ruler) → **war & political competition** (15th–18th-c. rulers were "war-lords/ladies") → **taxation + armies + administration** → **efficient bureaucracies** → **stronger territorial states.**

- **Tilly's four activities** (each reinforces the state — he likens the early state to a **protection racket**): **war-making** (neutralise external rivals) • **state-making** (neutralise internal rivals) • **protection** (neutralise clients' enemies) • **extraction** (raise the **tax** to fund the first three).
- **Brandenburg-Prussia** (*worked example*): surrounded by larger powers → needed armies → needed revenue (poor economy) → heavy **taxation in return for protection** → efficient bureaucracy → high **state capacity**. Prussia was strong **not because it always won**, but because it had to fight in a **very competitive environment**, which raised the incentive to build a strong state.
- Competition cut Europe from ~500 **sovereign entities in 1500** to ~50 today. The *truly* modern state arrives once it is seen as **separate from the ruler** and liberalism turns subjects into **citizens** (Glorious Revolution 1688; French Revolution 1789). (*Premodern states elsewhere ruled **people** more than precise territory — China's Confucian bureaucracy was closest to modern, ~1,800 years early.*)

② **Colonial pathway — statehood through conquest.** European powers **exported** borders, administrative structures and international recognition — but colonial borders **ignored existing political communities**. Result: **statehood ≠ state capacity** — postcolonial states inherited legal external sovereignty but **weak internal sovereignty**, imposed institutions and divided loyalties → mostly **very weak states** (universal statehood only by the 1960s). **Main take-away: the origins of statehood shape how capacity later develops.**

## Why are some states stronger? — strong / weak / failed (*heavily emphasised*)

**Core:** strength = how many political goods the state actually delivers — a *continuum* (strong → weak → failed), not three boxes, and a state can be strong on one characteristic, weak on another.

- States supply political goods (Rotberg: security, rule of law, infrastructure). **Strong** = provides them generally; **weak** = only partially; **failed** = loses effective sovereignty over part/all territory (Syria, DRC, Afghanistan). Strength is a **continuum** and can move *both* ways (Fukuyama: even the US state has weakened).
- **Vicious cycle of weakness:** no resources → falling legitimacy → underpaid officials → corruption → worse services → citizens turn to mafias/private justice → the monopoly on force erodes further.
- **Why states differ — theories of strength (name + who):**
  - **Warfare** (Tilly) — external threats force state-building (Prussia).
  - **Colonial legacies** (Acemoglu, Johnson & Robinson) — externally imposed institutions shape later state capacity (Congo, Nigeria).
  - **Elite agreements** (North, Wallis & Weingast) — elites trade *private violence* for **impersonal institutions & the rule of law** (England).
  - (+ *Fukuyama's two paths: bureaucracy-first Prussia/Germany vs democracy-first US → machine politics.*)
- **Theories of weakness:**
  - **Resource curse** — resource dependence weakens **accountability** and breeds corruption (mineral revenue lets rulers ignore citizens; gives rebels a prize — *not* inevitable, cf. Norway).
  - **International system** — international **recognition** props up quasi-states that couldn't otherwise survive (post-1945 norm against conquest; Cold War patrons).
- Measured by the **Fragile States Index** (178 states, 12 factors — the chapter questions its equal weighting).

## Cases & examples

**Why these cases are here — circle them back to the theme.** The chapter isn't telling eleven country stories for their own sake: each is a **worked example of the chapter's spine** — the **four characteristics**, the **strong**

→ **weak** → **failed** spectrum, and the **different bases of legitimacy** (Weber's three types). Read *every* case for three things: (1) **how strong, and why** · (2) **its basis of legitimacy** · (3) **any sovereignty problem**. The table maps each case to the concept it best demonstrates; the write-ups below give the story, and each closing → **line** states the tie back to the theme.

| Case              | Strength      | Basis of legitimacy                   | Best demonstrates (chapter concept)                                  |
|-------------------|---------------|---------------------------------------|----------------------------------------------------------------------|
| <u>Germany</u>    | Strongest     | shifting → <u>liberal democracy</u>   | Fukuyama's <b>bureaucracy-first</b> path; first welfare state        |
| <u>Japan</u>      | Strong        | democracy (emperor symbolic)          | <b>defensive modernisation</b>                                       |
| <u>UK</u>         | Strong        | traditional → rational-legal          | slow <b>evolution</b> ; sovereignty is <b>reversible</b> (Brexit)    |
| <u>USA</u>        | Strong        | rational-legal (written constitution) | Fukuyama's <b>democracy-first</b> path; state <b>built by design</b> |
| <u>Mexico</u>     | Moderate      | <u>liberal democracy</u> (post-PRI)   | loss of the <b>monopoly on force</b>                                 |
| <u>China</u>      | Moderate      | <b>economic performance</b>           | legitimacy <b>without</b> democracy                                  |
| <u>Brazil</u>     | Moderate      | cycled through all types              | legitimacy can rest on <b>many bases</b>                             |
| <u>India</u>      | Moderate–weak | <u>liberal democracy</u>              | democracy surviving in a <b>weak</b> state                           |
| <u>Russia</u>     | Weak          | nationalism                           | external strength ≠ internal rule of law                             |
| <u>Iran</u>       | Weak          | <b>theocracy</b>                      | theocratic legitimacy                                                |
| <u>Nigeria</u>    | Weakest       | contested                             | weak postcolonial state + <u>resource curse</u>                      |
| <u>Somaliland</u> | (boxed)       | —                                     | internal vs <u>external sovereignty</u> are <b>separable</b>         |
| <u>ISIS</u>       | (boxed)       | religious only                        | the <b>four characteristics</b> as a checklist                       |

- **Somaliland (internal vs external sovereignty)**. After Somalia collapsed in 1991, this ex-British region declared independence, wrote a 2001 constitution (an elected house + a house of **clan elders**), held real elections and grew on livestock/remittances — yet **no state recognises it** (one embassy, Ethiopia's). → *Shows the two sovereignties are separable*: it has near-full internal sovereignty but zero external — and looks more state-like than recognised Somalia.
- **ISIS — "was it a state?"** From its 2014 caliphate to 2017 defeat it held Belgium-sized territory (~6m people), taxed "every bushel of wheat" and ran a bureaucracy (even a DMV). But territory was only nominal, it rejected the international system (no external sovereignty), its legitimacy was purely religious, and it failed at **security**. → *Verdict: only "partially" a state* — the four characteristics used as a diagnostic checklist. (Tilly: "war made the state, and the state made war.")
- **Germany — first modern welfare state (strongest of the 11)**. Unified late (1871, Bismarck) on a merit-based **Prussian bureaucracy/military**; Bismarck built **Europe's first welfare programs** to undercut socialists. Legitimacy lurched: nationalism → Nazism → divided 1945–90 → reunified 1990, then led EU integration. → *Strong state despite a turbulent history; Fukuyama's "bureaucracy-first" path; voluntary ceding of sovereignty to the EU.*
- **Japan — determined sovereignty**. Consolidated under the **Tokugawa shogunate (1603)**; after US warships forced it open (1853), the **1867 Meiji Restoration** built a modern army, bureaucracy and constitution (1889) — the **first non-Western modern economy**. Militarism → WWII → US occupation

(first lost sovereignty in 400 years) → US-written pacifist democracy. → *Defensive modernisation; democracy replaces monarchy as legitimacy while the emperor stays symbolic.*

- **United Kingdom — the long evolution.** The opposite of the US: centuries of gradual change — single monarch from 1603, **Acts of Union 1707**, **Glorious Revolution 1688** starting the shift to liberal-democratic legitimacy; first to industrialise → global empire. → *Slow evolutionary state-building; sovereignty is reversible* — Scottish referendum (2014, lost 55–45) and **Brexit (2016)** reclaiming powers from the EU.
- **United States — a consciously crafted state.** Almost uniquely **created by design** (Declaration 1776 → Constitution after the failed Articles). Sovereignty tested by the **Civil War**; the Constitution built **federalism** and preserved slavery. Bureaucracy came *late* (machine politics until the **1880s Pendleton Act**). → *Rational-legal legitimacy via a written constitution; Fukuyama's "democracy-first" path; top external power but internally weakened by the legacy of slavery/racial inequality.*
- **Mexico — challenges to internal sovereignty.** A very weak first state (lost half its territory to the US, 1846–48); order under **Porfirio Díaz**, then the **Revolution (1910–20)** and **75 years of PRI rule** (electoral authoritarianism on oil + clientelism), ending with **Fox in 2000**. → *Above all, the loss of the monopoly on force* — drug cartels killed 75,000–100,000 in a decade.
- **China — economic legitimacy over reform.** Had a merit **Confucian bureaucracy** ~1,800 years before **Europe**; empire fell 1912 → **Communist victory 1949** (Mao; famine ≥20m dead) → after 1976 **Deng's** market reforms → history's fastest growth, now the #2 economy. → *Legitimacy shifts from communist ideology + Mao's charisma to economic performance* (a "modernising authoritarian" regime), tightening under Xi.
- **Brazil — many bases of legitimacy.** Had **more slaves than any American colony** and was the **last to abolish slavery (1888)**; gained independence peacefully as a monarchy. Cycled through charisma, **clientelism (the coronéis)**, Vargas's quasi-fascist **Estado Novo**, and military rule (1964–85) to democracy — then the **Petrobras scandal → 2016 impeachment**. → *A state that cycled through nearly every basis of legitimacy; corruption undermines the bureaucracy.*
- **India — enduring democracy in a weak state.** Territory forged by British rule; independence **1947** (Congress/Gandhi — the first successful 20th-c. anticolonial movement) amid **Partition** (largest migration in history, ≥1m dead). → *Uniquely for a postcolonial state, its legitimacy is continuous liberal democracy*, but the state is weak — corruption, mass poverty, Hindu–Muslim tension (its worst FSI indicator).
- **Russia — strong external, weak rule of law.** Four regimes: tsarist absolutism → the **communist USSR** (Stalin's modernisation killed ~20m) → a fragile 1990s democracy (oligarchs, mafias) → **Putin's electoral authoritarianism**; the USSR split into **15 states in 1991**; **Crimea annexed 2014**. → *External strength and nationalist legitimacy decoupled from internal rule of law.*
- **Iran — legitimacy via theocracy.** Heir to ancient Persia; **never colonised** but dominated by Britain/Russia; the **Pahlavi** modernising-authoritarian state (1925–79) → the **1979 revolution** under **Khomeini → the first modern theocracy**. → *Legitimacy runs monarchy → modernising authoritarianism → Islamic theocracy*; secure territory but a fairly weak state (corruption, sanctions, contested legitimacy).
- **Nigeria — an extremely weak state (weakest of the 11).** A colonial patchwork (Muslim north; Yoruba west; stateless Igbo east) under British "indirect rule"; independence 1960 → **Biafra civil war (1967–70, ~1m dead)** as oil came online; six coups; fragile democracy from 1999. → *The classic weak postcolonial state plus the resource curse* — oil fuels corruption and secession; sovereignty threatened by **Boko Haram**.

## Key terms

| Term                         | Meaning                                                                 |
|------------------------------|-------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| State                        | Ongoing administrative apparatus making/implementing law in a territory |
| Government / Regime          | The transient occupants / the <i>type</i> of government                 |
| Territory                    | Area with defined borders a state claims                                |
| External sovereignty         | Recognised independence from outside powers                             |
| Internal sovereignty         | Sole authority to make/enforce law inside                               |
| Legitimacy                   | The recognised right to rule                                            |
| Traditional legitimacy       | Right to rule from long-standing custom                                 |
| Charismatic legitimacy       | Right to rule from personal virtue/heroism                              |
| Rational-legal legitimacy    | Right to rule via accepted laws/procedures                              |
| Bureaucracy                  | Appointed officials who implement the law                               |
| Feudal states / Absolutism   | Overlapping sovereignties / single-monarch exclusive rule               |
| Ideal type                   | Model of the purest version of something                                |
| Political goods              | Security, rule of law, infrastructure a state provides                  |
| Strong / weak / failed state | Provides political goods generally / partially / loses sovereignty      |
| Resource curse               | Reliance on one resource lets the state ignore citizens                 |
| Quasi-states                 | Legally recognised but lacking a functioning state apparatus            |
| Clientelism                  | Exchange of material resources for political support                    |

## Exam pointers

- Use the **four characteristics as a diagnostic checklist** (the ISIS box is the model answer).
- Give **Weber's three legitimacy types** with an example each, and note real states blend them (*developed under Legitimacy*).
- Explain **strong/weak/failed** as a continuum + at least two theories of *why* (Tilly's warfare • colonial legacies (Acemoglu, Johnson & Robinson) • North-Wallis-Weingast elite bargains; weakness = resource curse • international recognition).
- Keep **external vs internal sovereignty** distinct — Somaliland (internal only) and Russia (external strong, rule of law weak) are the go-to illustrations.

## OD Ch. 4 — States and Identity

**Book:** Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 4.

## Chapter résumé

Identity politics — organised around **nation, ethnicity, race, class, religion, gender and sexual orientation** — has become the central challenge to the modern state and to the liberal ideal of **equal citizenship**. The chapter's core theoretical move is to reject **primordialism** (identities as natural/ancient) for **constructivism**: an identity's *political saliency* is **socially constructed**, shaped by elites, grievance, and above all the state (education, censuses, laws). The central normative debate is **individual vs. group rights** — is legal equality enough, or do marginalised groups need recognition, autonomy, representation and status support? Each identity type gets a case study; the chapter weights **gender/sexuality, race, and religion** most heavily.

★ **The heart of the chapter:** an identity's **political saliency is socially constructed, not natural** (constructivism, not primordialism) — so the real battle is **individual vs. group rights** over recognition, autonomy, representation and status.

**The red thread.** The whole chapter is *one idea applied seven times*. For **each** identity marker — nation • ethnicity • race • class • religion • gender • sexuality — ask the same **two questions**: ① **how was its political saliency constructed?** and ② **individual rights or group rights?** Every section and case below is a variation on those two questions; if you can answer them for a marker, you can answer the chapter.

**Lecture framing (AUW):** this chapter answers the lecture's 4th question — *who does the state represent?* A state claims a **territory**, and territory comes with "**the people**" it claims to represent — but people and territory rarely coincide neatly. Key distinction: **State** (territorial/administrative org) ≠ **Nation** (a people with shared belonging) ≠ **Nationalism** (*the political project of making the nation politically sovereign / controlling a state*). A state can contain many nations; a nation can exist without a state; nationhood is **socially constructed** (Anderson's "*imagined community*").

## Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **Political saliency** — how politically important an identity is; **created, not innate**.
- **Primordialism vs constructivism** — identities as natural/ancient vs **socially constructed** ("imagined communities," Anderson). *The chapter adopts constructivism.*
- **Nation vs ethnic group** — a nation has/seek a **state**; an ethnic group does not (a dissatisfied ethnic group can *become* a nation).
- **Cultural vs civic nationalism** → citizenship by **jus sanguinis** (blood, Germany) vs **jus soli** (soil, France); civic seen as more democracy-friendly.
- **The four demands of identity groups** — recognition • autonomy • representation • improved social status.
- **Group-rights toolkit: consociationalism** (Lijphart — share central power) vs the centripetal approach (Horowitz — incentivise leaders to moderate).
- **Three forms of secularism** — **neutral state** (USA) • **laïcité** (France) • **positive accommodation** (Germany); India's variant = "**principled distance**."
- **Assimilationist vs liberationist** strategies (feminist & LGBTQ).

## Section-by-section main points

### Understanding Identity — the chapter's core move

**Core:** it isn't groups but their political saliency that's constructed — **saliency is made, not given**. (*This is the lead argument for any ch. 4 answer.*)

|                    | Primordialism ( <i>almost no social scientist</i> )          | Constructivism ( <i>the chapter's choice</i> )                                                    |
|--------------------|--------------------------------------------------------------|---------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Identities are...  | natural, ancient ("time immemorial"), <b>fixed</b>           | <b>socially constructed</b> — "imagined communities" (Anderson)                                   |
| Defined by         | kinship, language, phenotype                                 | stories, symbols, interpretation                                                                  |
| Do they change?    | no                                                           | <b>yes</b> — flexible; you hold <b>many</b> at once; elites <b>activate</b> whichever fits        |
| Who talks this way | ethnic/national <b>leaders</b> (it legitimises their claims) | social scientists (Huntington's <i>Clash of Civilizations</i> = a sophisticated cultural version) |

**Why the chapter picks constructivism** — primordialism *cannot explain* three things constructivism can:

1. **Change over time** — the *same* difference goes dormant → deadly: ex-Yugoslavia's religious identities barely mattered under communism, then became killing lines *as* war spread.
2. **Identities appearing / splitting** — "Serbo-Croatian" fractured into three "languages" as war came; "**Asian American**" & "**Hispanic**" were *coined* in the 1960s; "Igbo" as a unified group first appears in 1930s documents.
3. **The state manufacturing identity** — via schooling ("national history"), censuses and elections the state decides which categories even exist and become salient.

→ **The move:** reject primordialism, adopt constructivism, then for each marker ask *how* its saliency was built.

**Gender** is the odd one out: rarely territorial, but the "proper woman" ideal **polices the boundary of every other identity**.

## | The Policy Debate — individual vs group rights (*emphasised*)

**Core:** once an identity is salient, groups make **four demands**; the whole fight is whether to answer them with **equal individual rights** (liberalism) or **special group rights** (multiculturalism).

- **The four demands:** ① **recognition** (Taylor's "politics of recognition" — the universal one) • ② **autonomy** (self-rule over a region or personal/religious law; thwarted → secession → civil war) • ③ **representation** (may need institutional change) • ④ **improved status** (most groups start poorer).
- **FOR group rights** (Kymlicka): legal equality alone can't include culturally distinct minorities → multicultural integration (vs **assimilation**). Institutional form: **consociationalism** (Lijphart — each group gets a share of central power + vetoes; Switzerland, Belgium, Lebanon, Northern Ireland) — *the most common post-Cold War response*.
- **AGAINST group rights** (classic liberalism): only individuals have rights; group rights **freeze inequality** and erode the shared identity democracy needs. Alternative: the centripetal approach (Horowitz — electoral rules that *reward broad, cross-ethnic appeal*; Nigeria).
- **The sharp dilemma** (exam favourite): should groups pursuing *illiberal* goals — e.g. religious law limiting gender equality — get special rights?

## | Nations, Nationalism & Immigration

**Core:** the only line between a nation and an ethnic group is the **state** — a nation has or seeks one; and nations are *made*, not found.

- Nations are **modern** and often *built by states* (d'Azeleglio: "*We have made Italy. Now we must make Italians.*").

- **Cultural (jus sanguinis) vs civic (jus soli) nationalism**; **immigration** is where the fight plays out (Syrian refugees, Brexit, Trump's wall). Even "civic" USA isn't so civic — **50%** think a "true American" is Christian, English-speaking, US-born.

## Ethnicity

**Core:** ethnic saliency is **switched on**, not ancient — by **leadership + grievance + resource wealth + fear**.

- "Imagined" and shiftable (Serbo-Croatian split into three languages *as war came*); wants recognition/autonomy/representation (India reorganised states on linguistic lines).

## Race (*heavily emphasised*)

**Core:** race = identity built on **physical** markers by **external imposition** (to justify domination/slavery) — the one identity that starts as *power over* a group, not self-assertion.

- Differs from ethnicity in *marking* (physical vs cultural), *origin* (imposed vs self-claimed) and built-in **power**. Genetic variation across "races" is no bigger than within them. Constructed by place: US "**one-drop rule**" vs Brazil's 12+ visual categories.

## Social Class

**Core:** the one identity still often defined by "**objective**" criteria — yet its political saliency is falling.

- Marx's classes (bourgeoisie/proletariat) fit a post-industrial economy awkwardly; constructivists see class as symbols/aspiration. Union density ~35% (1985) → ~17%; despite rising inequality, workers moved to **nationalist/right parties** (Brexit, Trump), not class politics (Huber: leaders mobilise whichever cleavage most cheaply wins).

## Religion & the Secular State (*heavily emphasised*)

**Core:** religion's demands mirror ethnicity's (recognition + autonomy over personal law); what varies is **how the state handles religion** — three models of secularism to memorise:

| Model                         | Rule                                          | Country                        | Flashpoint                         |
|-------------------------------|-----------------------------------------------|--------------------------------|------------------------------------|
| <b>Neutral state</b>          | neutral about religion, but not opposed       | <b>USA</b>                     | school prayer, creationism         |
| <b>Laïcité</b>                | religion barred from the <b>public sphere</b> | <b>France</b> , Turkey, Mexico | the <b>veil</b> bans               |
| <b>Positive accommodation</b> | state <b>supports</b> registered faiths       | <b>Germany</b> (church tax)    | recognising non-hierarchical Islam |

- India's "**principled distance**" is a fourth stance — treat groups **differently on purpose** (see the India case).
- Religion is more flexible than ethnicity (you can convert) *except* when politicised (ex-Yugoslavia marked identity despite low religiosity).

## Gender & Sexual Orientation (*the most heavily emphasised — two cases*)

**Core:** both movements pose the multiculturalism question in its sharpest form — **assimilate into existing norms, or transform them?**

- **Assimilationist** (liberal feminists / mainstream LGBTQ): win **equal rights within** existing institutions (same-sex marriage extends a heterosexual institution).
- **Liberationist** (Iris Young; radical LGBTQ): **transform the norms themselves** ("sexual citizenship"; marriage seen as patriarchal).
- Both grew from the 1960s West (**Stonewall, 1969**); the **transgender** movement now challenges the gender **binary** itself.
- Outcomes: big legal gains, not parity — women = **24% of MPs**; quotas <10 states (1980) → >100 (2010); same-sex marriage **Netherlands (2001)** → 25 countries by 2019.

## Cases & examples

Each identity type gets a case; each below: *what it shows* → *the concept*.

- **Northern Ireland — Good Friday Agreement (1998)**. With neither unionists nor nationalists able to win, the 1998 deal built a **consociational** system: NI stays British, power devolves to a PR-elected assembly, first/deputy-first ministers shared, every member labels as unionist/nationalist/other. It has collapsed repeatedly (2002–07; since 2017). → *Consociationalism/power-sharing — ends the violence but doesn't erase the division*.
- **Nationalism in Germany**. Germany ran a **strictly cultural** nationalism (**jus sanguinis**, codified 1913), auto-granting citizenship to ethnic Germans while denying it to German-born children of ~3m Turkish "guest workers." A 2000 reform opened **jus soli** (birth + residence + language); still **>40% of Turkish residents remain non-citizens**. Merkel's ~500k+ Syrian refugees (2015) revived the fight — the far-right **AfD** won 12.6% and 94 seats (2017). → *Cultural vs civic nationalism; immigration and who counts as "the nation."*
- **Ethnicity in Nigeria**. ~400 languages; the big three (**Hausa, Yoruba, Igbo**) were **constructed in the 20th century** ("Igbo" first appears in 1930s documents). A 1966 coup → anti-Igbo pogroms → **Biafra (civil war 1967–70, >1m dead)**. Nigeria then used **centripetal rules** (parties must be national; the president must win ≥25% in two-thirds of states; north/south rotation). → *Constructed/modern ethnicity + the centripetal approach + oil conflict*.
- **Racial politics in the USA (most detailed case)**. Race was **legally constructed** (one-drop → 1/32 under Jim Crow); "white" meant "not black," and the Irish/Italians/Jews only slowly "became white"; "**Asian American**"/"**Hispanic**" were coined in the 1960s. Persistent gaps: white wealth **>6×** black/Hispanic; ~1/3 of black men touch the justice system. From **Obama (2008)** to **Trump (2016)** — where **racial resentment, not economics, best predicted the Trump vote** (Sides/Tesler/Vavreck). → *Social construction of race, external imposition + power, and white backlash*.
- **Class politics in the UK**. Britain openly *recognises* class; unions built their **own party (Labour, 1900)** and peaked at **just over half the workforce unionised in 1979**, before the "winter of discontent" brought **Thatcher**, who broke union power; Blair's Labour moved to the centre. The working class shrank and many backed **Brexit**. → *Objective-vs-constructed class and the **decline of class salience** — mobilisation shifted from class to nation*.
- **Secularism in India**. A plural, devout society (>80% Hindu, ~13% Muslim) built on "**principled distance**" — the state treats groups *differently*, giving Muslims more autonomy over **personal law**. **Shah Bano (1986)**: the Court granted a divorced Muslim woman maintenance, then Parliament **reversed it** to restore Muslim personal law (communal rights beat individual equality). **Gujarat 2002**: ~2,000 Muslims killed. Modi/BJP push **Hindutva** against official secularism. → *Principled-distance secularism; autonomy vs uniform citizenship, fought through women's rights*.
- **Women in Iran**. A contradiction of **social gains but political/cultural repression**: Khomeini's regime mandated the hijab and stripped divorce rights, yet **1979→2002 female literacy rose 31%→69%, fertility**

fell 6.5→2.7, and women became 60% of university students — while holding ~2% of top posts. Islamic feminists claim *ijtihad* (the right to interpret texts); anti-veil protests since 2017. → *Social vs political gains; secular and Islamic feminism; gains are reversible under conservative rule.*

- **LGBTQ rights in Brazil.** Ended anti-sodomy law very early (1823), hosts the world's largest pride parade, yet is the largest Catholic country and elected the anti-gay Bolsonaro (2018). Courts (not the legislature) delivered civil unions (2011) and same-sex marriage (2013) via the constitution's anti-discrimination clause — but Brazil leads the world in transgender murders. → *LGBTQ rights in a new democracy — real court-won recognition alongside violence and religious backlash; mostly assimilationist.*

## Key terms

| Term                                             | Meaning                                                                    |
|--------------------------------------------------|----------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Political saliency                               | How politically important an identity is (created, not innate)             |
| Primordialism                                    | Identities as natural/ancient/God-given                                    |
| Constructivism                                   | Identities as socially constructed ("imagined communities")                |
| Social construction                              | Ongoing process by which a society defines who "we" are                    |
| Nation / Nationalism                             | Group that has/seek a state / the desire for one                           |
| Ethnic group                                     | Cultural group <i>not</i> seeking its own state                            |
| Cultural / civic nationalism                     | Unity by shared culture / by shared political beliefs                      |
| Jus sanguinis / jus soli                         | Citizenship by blood / by soil (residence)                                 |
| Race                                             | Group defined on perceived <i>physical</i> markers, by external imposition |
| Social class                                     | Group sharing status by wealth/income/work/education                       |
| Consociationalism                                | Ease conflict by giving each group a share of central power                |
| Centripetal approach                             | Incentivise leaders to moderate & broaden appeal                           |
| Autonomy / Assimilation                          | Partial self-rule / minorities adopt the majority culture                  |
| Multicultural integration                        | Accommodate enduring ethnocultural identities                              |
| Neutral state / laïcité / positive accommodation | Three forms of secularism (USA / France / Germany)                         |
| Assimilationist / liberationist                  | Equal rights within norms / transform the norms                            |

## Exam pointers

- Lead with constructivism vs primordialism and *why* the chapter picks constructivism (saliency is *made*, not given) — the full argument + comparison table is worked out under Understanding Identity.
- Frame any identity conflict with the four demands + individual-vs-group-rights debate, then the consociationalism (Northern Ireland) vs centripetal (Nigeria) toolkit (*developed under The Policy Debate*).
- Know the three forms of secularism with a country each, plus India's principled distance (*table under Religion & the Secular State*).
- For gender/sexuality use the assimilationist vs liberationist split; Iran (social vs political gains) and Brazil (court wins vs backlash) are the sharpest cases.

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## ★ Fun facts & memorable details

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Sticky stats, dates and quotes from Module 2 (ch. 2 & 4) — the stuff that makes an answer land.

### Quotable lines

- "L'état, c'est moi" ("The state, it is me") — **Louis XIV**, on the absolutist state not yet separate from the monarch. (ch.2)
- "War made the state, and the state made war." — **Charles Tilly**. (ch.2)
- "The difference between fascism and democracy is not whether the police are called, but when." — on the monopoly of force. (ch.2)
- "We have made Italy. Now we must make Italians." — **d'Azeglio**, on nations as built. (ch.4)
- Thesis of ch.4: liberalism vs communism defined the 20th century, "but nationalism won."

### Striking numbers

- Europe went from ~500 sovereign entities in 1500 to ~50 states today. (ch.2)
- **China built a merit bureaucracy ~1,800 years before Europe** (empire united 221 BCE). (ch.2)
- **Mexican cartel violence**: 75,000–100,000 killed in a decade — a direct challenge to the monopoly on force. (ch.2)
- **India's Partition (1947)**: likely the largest migration in history, ≥1 million dead. (ch.2)
- US **white wealth is >6×** black/Hispanic; ~⅓ of **black men** pass through the justice system. (ch.4)
- Union density ~35% (1985) → ~17% today; UK unions peaked at **just over half the workforce in 1979**. (ch.4)
- Iran **1979→2002**: literacy 31%→69%, fertility 6.5→2.7, women 60% of university students — but ~2% of top posts. (ch.4)

### Memorable facts

- Tilly's "**protection racket**": the early European state is basically a protection racket — rulers sold *protection* against threats they themselves partly created, funding it by **extraction** (tax). (lecture)
  - **Brandenburg-Prussia** became a strong state **not by winning wars** but by having to fight in a brutally **competitive** neighbourhood — the pressure forced a strong tax-and-bureaucracy machine. (lecture)
  - **Germany** built **Europe's first welfare state** (Bismarck) as a tool to undercut socialists. (ch.2)
  - **Japan** was the **first non-Western modern economy**; US warships forced it open in 1853; the 1945 occupation was its first lost sovereignty in **400 years**. (ch.2)
  - **Brazil** had **more slaves than any American colony** and abolished slavery **last (1888)** — yet legalised **same-sex marriage (2013)** while leading the world in **transgender murders**. (ch.2 & 4)
  - **ISIS** reportedly ran a **DMV** and picked up garbage more efficiently than Iraq — but still failed the "state" test on security and recognition. (ch.2)
  - **Somaliland** works as a state but has **one embassy** and **zero recognition**. (ch.2)
  - The far-right **AfD** (2017) was the **first far-right party in the German parliament since 1960**. (ch.4)
  - **Stonewall (1969)** turned a tiny movement into a mass one "literally overnight." (ch.4)
  - "**Igbo**" as a unified identity first appears in documents only in the **1930s** — ethnicity as a modern construction. (ch.4)
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# Lecture 3: Political Regimes (FK)

Required reading: OD ch. 3 (*States, Citizens, and Regimes*)

**Theme of the lecture (Filip Kiil):** ch. 2 asked *what a state is*; ch. 3 asks *what kind of government rules it* — the **regime** — and sorts regimes by the **ideology** that answers **who may rule and what rights citizens get**.

**Lecture frame (FK) — the State–Regime–Citizen(–Ideology) nexus**

**Core:** four linked concepts; the **regime** sits between the permanent **state** and the current **government**, and is classified by its **ideology**.

- **State** — the ongoing administrative apparatus (ch. 2); most enduring.
- **Regime** — the formal + **informal** institutions defining the *type* of government; more enduring than governments, less than the state. (*US: 46 administrations, one democratic regime since 1789; Nigeria: 8 regimes.*)
- **Citizen** — a member of the political community with **rights + duties** (vs a *subject*, who has only duties/obedience).
- **Ideology** — defines the **state–citizen relationship** and is how we classify regimes — but regimes often **diverge** from their ideology (informal institutions dominate, especially in weak states).

**The V-Dem / "Regimes of the World" ladder** (Lührmann, Tannenbergs & Lindberg 2018) — the modern measure the lecture uses:

| Regime              | Multi-party elections? | Free & fair?                         | Rights + checks on the executive?    |
|---------------------|------------------------|--------------------------------------|--------------------------------------|
| Closed autocracy    | No                     | —                                    | No                                   |
| Electoral autocracy | Yes                    | No (restrictions undermine fairness) | No                                   |
| Electoral democracy | Yes                    | Yes                                  | Partial                              |
| Liberal democracy   | Yes                    | Yes                                  | Yes (rights, legal equality, checks) |

**Explaining regime *change*** (the same **Interests / Beliefs / Structures** lens from Lecture 1):

| Lens       | How it explains change                                                                                                         |
|------------|--------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Interests  | Elites expand/restrict democracy to maximise power (democratise post-1990 for aid; <b>backslide</b> when power is threatened). |
| Beliefs    | Democratic ideals spread in 19th–20th c.; fascism/communism caused reversals; recent <b>populism</b> erodes liberal values.    |
| Structures | Industrialisation enabled democratisation; Cold War blocs sustained autocracy; globalisation/inequality now strain democracy.  |

## OD Ch. 3 — States, Citizens, and Regimes

**Book:** Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 3.

## Chapter résumé

Examines the **state↔people** relationship as embodied in different **regimes** — the formal + informal institutions defining a *type* of government. It traces the rise of the "**citizen**" (vs "subject") and of **civil society**, presents T.H. Marshall's three rights of citizenship (civil, political, social), then gives the chapter's core: a **taxonomy of regime types classified by ideology** — liberal democracy, communism, fascism, modernizing authoritarianism, personalist, electoral authoritarianism, theocracy. A recurring thread: **no regime works exactly as its ideology claims** — informal institutions often matter more.

★ **The heart of the chapter:** a **regime** = the formal + informal institutions defining a \*type\* of government, classified by its **ideology**. The single axis that orders them all: **how much power goes to citizens vs. the state**. **Liberal democracy** (limited state, broad rights) is the benchmark; every other regime tilts power toward the state and restricts full citizenship to a select group.

**The red thread.** Read the whole chapter as answers to **one question** — *how is power shared between citizens and the state?* Liberal democracy shares it widely (limited government + Marshall's rights); communism, fascism, modernizing & electoral authoritarianism, and theocracy concentrate it (in the party / a leader / a developing elite / God), restricting full citizenship to the working class / loyal nationals / the developers / the faithful. For **every** regime type ask: **who has power, and what rights do citizens get?**

### Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **State vs regime vs government** — continuous apparatus / *type* of government / current occupants.
- **Citizen vs subject** — rights + duties vs duties only.
- **Marshall's three rights** — **civil** • **political** • **social** (the yardstick for "full" citizenship).
- **Ideology-based regime taxonomy** — the seven types (below).
- **Dahl's 8 guarantees** — the working definition of liberal democracy.
- **Formal vs informal institutions** — informal rules (patronage, factions) often explain how a regime *really* works.

### Section-by-section main points

#### | Citizens & civil society

**Core:** modern politics invented the **citizen** (rights + duties) out of the **subject** (obedience only) — and full citizenship needs all three of **Marshall's rights**.

- **Citizen vs subject:** 200–300 years ago Europeans were **subjects** of absolutist monarchs (no mechanism to protect "rights"); citizenship arose as sovereignty moved from the monarch to "**the people**" (after the French Revolution people addressed each other as "*citizen*").
- **Marshall (1963)** — **three rights:** **civil** (individual freedom, fair treatment) • **political** (participation, vote) • **social** (welfare, socioeconomic equality). Full citizenship needs *enough* social equality to make civil/political equality real. **Virtually no country fully provides all three.**
- **Civil society** — organised, nongovernmental, nonviolent activity by groups larger than families/firms; impossible under absolutism, enabled by religious pluralism + capitalism.
- **Popular sovereignty** — even dictators claim to rule *on behalf of* the people (theocracy claims God willed the exception). Emerging **postnational** citizenship (EU, ICC) — but core rights still sit in the **nation-state**.

## Regimes, ideologies & citizens

**Core:** regimes are classified by **ideology**, but never match it perfectly — **informal institutions** often dominate (especially in weak states).

- Liberal democracy is the **benchmark all regimes respond to**: ~90% of the world's constitutions — including authoritarian ones — mention "democracy" (Elkins et al. 2014).

## The regime taxonomy — *memorise this (the exam core)*

**Core:** seven regime types, each defined by an ideology answering **who has power** and **what citizens get**.

| Regime                              | Key idea                                                                                | Who has power                                      |
|-------------------------------------|-----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|----------------------------------------------------|
| <u>Liberal democracy</u>            | Individuals free with natural rights; govt must preserve <b>life, liberty, property</b> | The <b>legislature</b> (elected, removable)        |
| <b>Communism</b>                    | <u>Historical materialism</u> → proletarian revolution → classless, stateless society   | <u>Vanguard party</u> now; the proletariat "later" |
| <b>Fascism</b>                      | Organic society; the <b>state creates the nation</b> ; corporatism                      | A <b>supreme leader</b>                            |
| <u>Modernizing authoritarianism</u> | <i>Development</i> needs unity, so democracy must wait                                  | A <b>modern (educated) elite</b>                   |
| <b>Personalist regime</b>           | Claims to modernise but is really <b>neopatrimonial</b>                                 | An <b>individual ruler</b>                         |
| <u>Electoral authoritarianism</u>   | Blends democratic + authoritarian legitimacy                                            | The <b>ruling party</b> (via rigged elections)     |
| <b>Theocracy</b>                    | Rule by <b>divine</b> authority (Islamism → sharia)                                     | <b>God</b> (via the clergy) — not the people       |

## Liberal democracy

**Core:** liberal democracy = **democracy (rule by the people)** + **liberalism (individual rights)** — a *limited* state that protects rights and holds free, competitive elections.

- **Roots:** liberalism arose in the 16th–17th-c. religious wars; social contract theory (Hobbes, Locke, Montesquieu, Rousseau). **Locke:** government is legitimate only if it preserves **life, liberty, property** (Jefferson → "pursuit of happiness"). Democracy was added later; early liberals limited citizenship to **male property owners** — expanded over the 19th–20th c.
- **Dahl's 8 guarantees** (the working definition): freedom of **association** · **expression** · right to **vote** · broad **office eligibility** · leaders' right to **compete** · alternative **information** · **free & fair elections** · institutions that make policy **depend on votes**.
- **Varieties of democracy:** **liberal** (political rights — UK) · **social democracy** (adds economic regulation + social rights — Sweden; a variant within liberal democracy) · **participatory** (direct involvement beyond voting — Switzerland).

## Communism

**Core:** Marx's historical materialism — economic forces drive history — predicts a proletarian revolution ending in a classless, stateless utopia; in practice it produced the totalitarian state.

- **Feudalism → capitalism → socialism → communism.** Liberal democracy is a "shell" for capitalism; liberal rights = "equal rights for unequal people."
- **Stages: socialism** = collective ownership + dictatorship of the proletariat (a *class* dictatorship) → eventually stateless, classless **communism** (human nature itself changes).
- **Critique:** any theory promising utopia tends toward the totalitarian state (Russia/Stalin case).

## Fascism

**Core:** antiliberal *and* anticommunist — the state creates and embodies the nation; the individual exists only for the state; citizens have **duties, not rights**.

- **Organic** conception of society; a **supreme leader** embodies the nation. **Corporatism:** one state-controlled organisation per sector (one union, one business association). Rejects rationality/materialism → glorifies struggle & war → **totalitarian** (Nazi Germany case).

## Modernizing authoritarianism

**Core:** legitimacy through **development, not rights** — a **modern elite** must guide progress, and democracy would only interfere.

- Technocratic legitimacy rooted in **modernization theory** (postcolonial states must follow the West's path). **Four institutional forms:** **one-party** (civilian; postcolonial Africa/Asia — Tanzania) • **military** (coup — Brazil) • **bureaucratic-authoritarian** • **personalist**.

## Personalist regimes

**Core:** in the **weakest states**, one leader captures everything — even the party/military that raised him — via **neopatrimonial** patron–client loyalty rather than institutions.

- Weak, unstable, unpredictable; rule of law inconsistent. Most common in Africa (Mobutu, Marcos, Abacha/Nigeria).

## Electoral authoritarianism (hybrid)

**Core:** a **hybrid** — real opposition and elections *exist*, but the ruling party **manipulates the rules** so it never actually loses; it **proclaims itself democratic**.

- Blends liberal-democratic (elections) + modernizing-authoritarian (limits for "stability/development") legitimacy. Spread after the Cold War because open authoritarianism lost international legitimacy (Mexico/PRI case).

## Theocracy

**Core:** rule by **religious authorities on behalf of God** — so ultimate sovereignty is **Allah's, not the people's**.

- **Islamism** (a 19th–20th-c. reaction to Western imperialism, *not* traditional): sharia should be the basis of government. Key terms: **sharia** (law) • **ijtihad** (individual interpretation) vs **taqlid** (blind acceptance) • **shura** (consultation — the opening for quasi-democracy) • **umma** (community) • **jihad** (three kinds: inner struggle [most important] → righting injustice → armed defence [least]). Iran is the world's **only true theocracy** (Iran case).

## Cases & examples

Why these cases are here — circle them back. Each country is a worked example of one regime type; read every case for (1) which type · (2) who has power · (3) what rights citizens get. The table maps case → type; the write-ups tell the story.

| Case                    | Regime type                               | Who has power                  | Freedom House |
|-------------------------|-------------------------------------------|--------------------------------|---------------|
| <u>UK</u>               | <u>Liberal democracy</u>                  | Parliament (sovereign)         | Free          |
| <u>Russia/USSR</u>      | Communism → (now electoral authoritarian) | <u>Vanguard party</u> / Stalin | Not Free      |
| <u>Germany (Nazi)</u>   | Fascism                                   | A supreme leader               | (Free today)  |
| <u>Brazil</u>           | Modernizing authoritarian (military)      | Technocratic military elite    | Free (today)  |
| <u>Nigeria (Abacha)</u> | Personalist                               | One ruler (neopatrimonial)     | Partly Free   |
| <u>Mexico (PRI)</u>     | Electoral authoritarian                   | The ruling party               | Partly Free   |
| <u>Iran</u>             | Theocracy                                 | God (via the clergy)           | Not Free      |
| <u>Tanzania</u>         | Modernizing authoritarian (one-party)     | A single party                 | —             |

- **United Kingdom — "cradle of democracy."** Liberal democracy evolved gradually, with no single written constitution and no revolutionary break from monarchy: **Magna Carta (1215) → Glorious Revolution (1688) → Bill of Rights (1689)**; the franchise expanded only under pressure (1832 middle class ~7%; women's suffrage 1918); recent **devolution (1997)**, a standalone **Supreme Court (2005)**. → *The first liberal democracy; power rests on parliamentary sovereignty (a powerful informal institution) + the slow build-up of all three Marshall rights.*
- **Russia/USSR — the first "communist" regime.** Revolution came in the "wrong country" (agrarian, not advanced-capitalist). **Lenin** added the vanguard party and led the **October Revolution 1917**; **Stalin** built a totalitarian state (rapid industrialisation, 2–20 million deaths); **Gorbachev's** reforms → collapse **Dec 1991** into 15 states. → *Communism in practice = the totalitarian state; the regime diverged wildly from Marx's theory (Marx → Lenin → Stalin).*
- **Germany — the rise of the Nazis (fascism).** Hitler was elected, not a coup — the Nazis won 37% (1932) amid depression; the **Reichstag fire (1933)** → Enabling Act → dictatorship; unions replaced by a party-controlled front (corporatism); Nazism fused fascism with **racism** → the **Holocaust (~6m Jews)**. → *Fascism + totalitarian state; its horror delegitimised fascism globally, though neofascism persists (Le Pen's National Front — 2nd in France's 2002 presidential race).*
- **Brazil — a military modernizing-authoritarian regime (1964–85).** A US-backed coup installed a **technocratic military elite** that staked legitimacy on **development + anticommunism** (National Security Doctrine); state-led industry produced the "**Brazilian Miracle**" (1967–73) but rising inequality. When growth stalled, unions + the Church revived civil society → **democracy restored 1985**. → *Modernizing authoritarianism in military form — legitimacy = development, so no growth = no legitimacy.*
- **Nigeria — Abacha's personalist regime (1993–98).** After the military annulled the **1993 election**, **General Abacha** seized power, gutted the courts, jailed/killed opponents (hanged poet **Ken Saro-Wiwa**), and looted ~\$3 billion — ruling by **neopatrimonial** oil patronage. His **sudden death (1998)** ended it; wary officers delivered the **democracy in place since 1999**. → *Personalist regime — a weak state's institutions crumble around one man.*

- **Mexico — the PRI (electoral authoritarianism).** The PRI ruled ~71 years via regular *but rigged* elections — a **democratic veneer** over **clientelism, corporatism and fraud** (Tlatelolco Massacre 1968), with power rotated among factions and presidents limited to one **sexenio**. Erosion (contested 1988) → **Vicente Fox (PAN) broke the monopoly in 2000**. → *The classic hybrid regime — informal institutions (clientelism, fraud) dominate the formal democratic shell.*
- **Iran — the Islamic Republic (theocracy).** Khomeini's 1979 revolution built the first modern theocracy: a **Supreme Leader** (a cleric with veto power) + a **Guardian Council (12 clergy)** vetting all candidates/laws, *above* an elected president & parliament (**Majlis**). The **1979 constitution** makes **Allah sovereign** and sharia the sole law. → *Theocracy — permanent tension between theocratic authority and quasi-democratic elements (shura/elections).*
- **Tanzania — Nyerere's one-party regime.** Julius Nyerere ("Africa's philosopher-king") justified a **one-party** state by claiming Africa lacked class divisions; his **ujamaa** "African socialism" ruined agriculture but achieved **near-universal literacy**; he **voluntarily resigned (1985)**. → *Civilian one-party modernizing authoritarianism — the "development vs democracy" trade-off.*

## Key terms

| Term                                | Meaning                                                                         |
|-------------------------------------|---------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Regime                              | Formal + informal institutions defining a <i>type</i> of government             |
| Citizen / Subject                   | Member with rights + duties / person with duties (obedience) only               |
| Civil / Political / Social rights   | Marshall's three: freedom & fair treatment / participation / welfare & equality |
| Civil society                       | Organised nongovernmental, nonviolent activity beyond family/firm               |
| Social contract theory              | Legitimate govt = free individuals contracting to be governed                   |
| Liberal democracy                   | Democracy + liberalism; Dahl's 8 guarantees                                     |
| Social / Participatory democracy    | Adds social rights & economic control / adds direct participation               |
| Parliamentary sovereignty           | Parliament is supreme (UK)                                                      |
| Historical materialism              | Material/economic forces drive history (Marxism)                                |
| Dictatorship of the proletariat     | First communist stage: rule by the working class                                |
| Totalitarian state                  | Controls ~all of society, eliminates civil society                              |
| Vanguard party                      | Lenin: elite party leading the proletariat                                      |
| Corporatism                         | One state-controlled organisation per social sector                             |
| Modernizing authoritarianism        | Legitimacy from "development" by a modern elite                                 |
| Technocratic legitimacy             | Right to rule based on expertise                                                |
| Personalist regime / Neopatrimonial | One ruler dominates / power via personal patron–client loyalty                  |
| Electoral authoritarianism          | Hybrid: opposition + elections, but rigged                                      |
| Theocracy / Islamism                | Rule by religious authority / sharia as the basis of government                 |

## Exam pointers

- Nail the state / regime / government / citizen distinctions + Marshall's three rights (civil/political/social) — the framing for any answer.
- Reproduce the seven-type regime taxonomy (key idea + **who has power**) — and answer everything through the red thread: *how is power shared between citizens and the state?*
- Define liberal democracy via Dahl's 8 guarantees + the **three varieties** (liberal/social/participatory).
- Distinguish the **authoritarian types** with a case each: communism (Russia) · fascism (Germany) · modernizing (Brazil/Tanzania) · personalist (Nigeria) · electoral authoritarian (Mexico) · theocracy (Iran).
- Use the **V-Dem ladder** (closed autocracy → electoral autocracy → electoral democracy → liberal democracy) and the **Interests/Beliefs/Structures** lens to discuss *regime change*.

## ★ Fun facts & memorable details

Sticky stats, dates & quotes from Lecture 3 (regimes).

### Quotable lines

- Mussolini: "*The State is all-embracing; outside of it no human or spiritual values can exist*" — and he openly embraced the label "**totalitarian**."
- Marx: communism is "*a spectre haunting Europe*" (*Communist Manifesto*, 1848); liberal rights = "*equal rights for unequal people*."
- Nyerere: "*When a village of a hundred people have sat and talked together until they agreed where a well should be dug, they have practised democracy*."
- Locke's core liberties = "**life, liberty and property**" → Jefferson's "**life, liberty and the pursuit of happiness**."

### Striking numbers

- ~**90%** of the world's constitutions — including authoritarian ones — mention "democracy."
- **Dahl** = **8** guarantees of liberal democracy.
- Deaths under **Stalin**: estimated **2–20 million**; USSR dissolved **Dec 1991** into **15** states.
- Hitler's Nazis won **37% (1932)** and he was **elected** chancellor — not a coup; ~**6 million** Jews killed.
- The **PRI** ruled **71 years**, winning **98% of local/congressional elections 1946–73** (and **98.7%** of the 1976 presidential vote).
- Iran's **Guardian Council** = **12 clergy**; Iran is nearly all **Shiite**, though Sunnis are ~**85%** of the world's Muslims.

### Memorable facts

- The US has had **46 administrations but one regime** (since 1789); **Nigeria has had 8 regimes**.
- "**Kremlinology**" — analysts inferred Soviet power from who stood closest to the leader at parades.
- **Abacha** (Nigeria) looted ~**\$3 billion** and hanged the poet **Ken Saro-Wiwa**.
- Le Pen's **National Front** came **2nd in France's 2002 presidential election** — neofascism didn't die with 1945.
- The **three jihads**: inner struggle (most important) → righting injustice in the *umma* → armed defence (least important) — the reverse of the popular Western image.

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# Lecture 4: Systems of Government

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Required reading: OD ch. 5 (*Governing Institutions in Democracies*)

Theme of the lecture: the various elements of states and systems of government — the different types of executive and legislative systems, focusing in particular on **parliamentarism vs. presidentialism**.

Lecture frame (FK). *Why it matters*: the institutional set-up **shapes policy** with big downstream consequences for people and businesses, and explains **why democracies function so differently** (US flashpoints the lecture cites: **Citizens United**, **Roe v. Wade**, the **filibuster**). Everything below runs on Lijphart's **majoritarian ↔ consensus** framing + Tsebelis's **veto players**.

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## OD Ch. 5 — Governing Institutions in Democracies

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Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 5.

### Chapter résumé

How democracies organise their governing institutions — **executive, legislature, judiciary, bureaucracy**, and the **national↔subnational** split — and why the same rules on paper produce different outcomes depending on **context** (party number/discipline, institutionalisation). The organising claim: **the executive–legislative relationship** "more than anything else distinguishes different kinds of democracies," giving three models — **parliamentarism** (fusion, Westminster), **presidentialism** (separation, US), and **semi-presidentialism** (dual executive, France/Russia) — judged on **accountability, effective policymaking, and stability**. It sits all this on Lijphart's **majoritarian ↔ consensus** continuum (few vs many **veto players**), then covers **judicial review**, **bureaucracy** (the **principal–agent problem**), and **federal vs unitary** systems.

★ **The heart of the chapter**: the **executive–legislative relationship** is what most distinguishes democracies — **parliamentary** (powers *fused*), **presidential** (powers *separated*), or **semi-presidential** (executive *split*). Each is a different answer to **how executive power is chosen, checked, and removed** — trading off **accountability, effective policymaking and stability**.

**The red thread**. Everything hangs on one question: **how is executive power organised and held accountable?** Place each system on Lijphart's **majoritarian ↔ consensus** line (few ↔ many **veto players**): Westminster parliamentarism = most majoritarian (power concentrated, clear vertical accountability, weak horizontal check); US presidentialism = built-in separation/veto players (strong horizontal check, gridlock-prone). For any case ask: **how is the executive chosen · how is it removed · how many veto players · what's the accountability/efficiency/stability trade-off?**

### Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **Executive** split into **head of state** (symbolic, represents the country) vs **head of government** (runs policy).
- **The three systems**: **parliamentary** (fusion) · **presidential** (separation) · **semi-presidential** (split executive).

- **Majoritarian ↔ consensus democracy** (Lijphart) + **veto players** (Tsebelis) — the master frame.
- **Vertical vs horizontal accountability** (O'Donnell) — citizens→state vs state→state.
- **Judicial review** (+ common vs code law) · **principal–agent problem** (bureaucracy) · **federal vs unitary**.
- **The stability debate**: Linz's "*Perils of Presidentialism*."

## Section-by-section main points

### | The framing — majoritarian vs consensus, and accountability

**Core**: institutions differ by **how much they concentrate vs disperse power** — Lijphart's majoritarian↔consensus line, measured by the number of **veto players**.

- **Majoritarian** (UK): single-party executive, executive dominates the legislature, unicameral, easily amended constitution → **few veto players**. **Consensus** (US/Germany): coalition executives, executive–legislative balance, bicameral, rigid constitution → **many veto players**.
- **Veto player** (Tsebelis): any actor whose agreement is needed to change policy — more of them (+ greater ideological distance) = less policy change.
- **Accountability** (O'Donnell): **vertical** = citizens hold the state accountable (elections, ch. 6); **horizontal** = state institutions check each other (this chapter). Only the **executive** is essential to all states; legislature + judiciary exist to *limit* it.

★ **Why the majoritarian/PR choice matters for redistribution** (Iversen & Soskice 2006 — from the deck): with three classes (lower/middle/upper), in a **proportional** system the **middle class sides with the lower class** to redistribute from the rich → **bigger welfare states**; in a **majoritarian** system the middle class sides with the **upper class** to avoid heavy taxes from the poor → **less redistribution**. This is a big reason PR democracies redistribute more — a bridge to Lecture 5, and it helps explain the Sweden vs US welfare puzzle.

### | Executives & legislatures

**Core**: the executive fills two roles — **head of state** (symbolic) and **head of government** (policy) — and *how those relate to the legislature* defines the three systems.

- One person can hold both roles (US president) or they can be split (UK monarch + PM). The **executive–legislative relationship** is the key variable.
- **Legislatures**: **unicameral** (one house) vs **bicameral** (two — the upper house usually represents states/regions; standard in federal systems). Legislatures are *more powerful in presidential systems* than in parliamentary ones — because of separation of powers, **a legislator can't also sit in the cabinet**, so members have **no ministerial promotion to earn from the executive** and stay independent. (*In a parliamentary system, ministers ARE MPs, so ambitious MPs toe the party line to be promoted into the cabinet → a weaker, executive-dependent legislature. Note: this is about chasing cabinet (minister) posts, not re-election to one's own seat — every legislator chases that.*)

### | Parliamentarism — the Westminster model (*most emphasised*)

**Core**: executive and legislature are **fused** — parliament elects the chief executive (**PM**), who is *both* the majority-party leader *and* a sitting legislator. The purest **majoritarian** form.

- **PM is not directly elected:** citizens vote for parliament; the majority names the PM (in practice you know each party's candidate). A **ceremonial head of state** (monarch, or an esteemed elected "president") stays out of politics.
- **Removal = vote of no confidence** → PM resigns (party picks a new leader) *or* asks the head of state to call **new elections**; PM can also **dissolve** parliament. Usually **no fixed terms**. (No-confidence votes succeed only ~5% of the time but signal weakness.)
- **Power depends on the party system:** a disciplined single majority makes the PM "*the most powerful democratic executive in the world*" (legislation passes almost automatically). **No majority → coalition government**, small parties become **veto players**, stability drops (Sweden 2018: 133 days to form a government).
- **Cabinet** of ministers (must be MPs); in coalitions the PM must share out "portfolios" — the cabinet is the main policy-bargaining site and a check on the PM.

## Presidentialism — the separation of powers

**Core:** executive and legislature are **elected separately with separate powers** (separation of powers, Montesquieu). The defining feature is *separation*, not that one person is both head of state & government.

- **President is directly elected** and serves a **fixed term**; branches generally **can't remove each other** (only a hard **impeachment**). This builds in **institutional veto players** — lawmaking needs *both* president and legislative majority → checks & balances, but **gridlock** (esp. under divided government).
- **Cabinet** is freely appointed (often non-legislators, any party), subject to legislative consent — but it's a **less important** body than in parliamentary systems. The **legislature is typically more powerful** than in parliamentary systems.
- **Coalitional presidentialism:** with fragmented legislatures the president must build an informal party coalition and act "a little like a PM" (**Brazil** is the classic case).

## Semi-presidentialism — the hybrid

**Core:** executive power is **split** between a **directly elected president** (head of state, with real powers) and a **PM** (head of government, backed by the parliamentary majority, appointed by the president, removable by no-confidence).

- Legislation needs the president's signature **and** PM/majority support; the powers must be **clearly divided** (often unclear in practice). Originated in **France, 1958 (de Gaulle)**.
- **Cohabitation:** president and legislative majority from **different parties** → president appoints an opposing-party PM (French norm: president runs foreign policy, PM runs domestic). Limits presidential power but can cause gridlock.
- **Elgie's key question:** *can the president dismiss the PM?* If **yes** → unstable, democracy endangered (**Russia**); if **no** → more power-sharing, no less stable than parliamentarism.

## ★ The core comparison — parliamentary vs presidential vs semi-presidential

**Core:** learn this table cold — it's the centre of the lecture and the exam.

| Feature                  | Parliamentary                                                      | Presidential                             | Semi-presidential                                 |
|--------------------------|--------------------------------------------------------------------|------------------------------------------|---------------------------------------------------|
| Powers                   | <b>Fused</b> (exec from legislature)                               | <b>Separated</b> (elected independently) | <b>Split</b> executive (pres + PM)                |
| Head of state / govt     | Separate (monarch/ceremonial pres + <b>PM</b> )                    | <b>Same person</b> (president)           | President (HoS, real powers) + <b>PM</b> (HoG)    |
| Executive chosen by      | <b>Parliament</b> (majority names PM)                              | <b>Directly elected</b>                  | President directly elected; PM by parliament      |
| Terms                    | Usually <b>no fixed term</b>                                       | <b>Fixed term</b>                        | Fixed presidential term; PM depends on parliament |
| How executive is removed | <u><b>Vote of no confidence</b></u> (+ PM can dissolve parliament) | Only <b>impeachment</b> (hard)           | PM by no-confidence; president fixed              |
| Veto players             | <b>Few</b> (majoritarian)                                          | <b>Built-in</b> (pres + legislature)     | Depends (cohabitation adds them)                  |
| Classic cases            | <b>UK, Germany, India</b>                                          | <b>USA, Brazil</b>                       | <b>France, Russia</b>                             |

- **Accountability:** parliamentarism = clearest **vertical** (voters know whom to blame) but weak **horizontal** under a single majority; presidentialism = strong **horizontal** (separation) but can hurt policymaking.
- **Policymaking (Samuels):** presidential systems **change the status quo less** and more slowly. *Illustration:* **Thatcher (UK) reshaped economic policy far more than Reagan (US)** despite similar aims — she had a compliant majority; he faced a Democratic Congress.

## The stability debate — Linz's "Perils of Presidentialism"

**Core: Linz (1990):** presidentialism is more crisis-prone because of three flaws; but critics say the *society*, not the institution, is the real problem.

- **Linz's three perils:** ① **dual legitimacy** (two independently elected branches, no democratic tie-breaker) • ② **winner-take-all** presidents over-read their mandate and won't compromise • ③ **inflexible fixed terms** (a failing president can't be removed). Danger peaks for *new* democracies under **coalitional presidentialism** (small presidential party + fragmented legislature).
- **Counter (Cheibub 2007):** presidential systems just "*tend to exist in societies where democracies of any type are likely to be unstable.*" Semi-presidentialism is empirically **no less stable than parliamentarism** — if the president can't override the legislature or sack the PM.

## Judiciary

**Core:** courts interpret law and, via **judicial review**, can strike laws as unconstitutional — making them a **veto player** and a check on the majority (the "why should unelected judges decide?" problem). Only real if **institutionalised**.

- **Two legal families → two review types: common law** (Britain + colonies incl. US; judges follow **precedent**) → **decentralised + concrete** review (*any* court can rule on constitutionality, but only inside a real case); **code law** (Roman/Napoleon; written code only, precedent ignored; French/Iberian colonies) → **centralised + abstract** review (one special **constitutional court**, which can rule on a law in the abstract).
- **Why let unelected judges override elected majorities?** Defenders: legislatures aren't perfectly representative either; judges are *appointed by elected officials* (Dahl 1957: justices sit within the ruling

coalition); courts check the other branches and *claim* to protect minorities (though studies find they more often side with the powerful).

- "Judicialisation of politics" (Tate & Vallinder) — courts pulled into ever more political questions; "one of the most significant trends" of recent government, as many actors turn courts into a **veto point**.
- **Independence depends on informal factors + legitimacy**: a **fragmented, competitive** political system gives courts room; judges' own beliefs matter; and because courts command neither army nor purse, hard-won **legitimacy** is what makes review real. *Example: Brazil's Supreme Federal Tribunal (STF)* grew confident enough to help impeach presidents and drove the *Lava Jato* anti-corruption probe — but code-law **abstract review** lets ~70,000 cases/year flood in (≈90% decided by a single judge), making it a clogged veto point.

## Bureaucracy

**Core**: every state needs a merit-based, law-bound bureaucracy — but unelected officials with expertise create a **principal-agent problem** (agents pursue their own interests → inefficiency or corruption).

- **Professionalisation** (merit appointment) replaced **patronage** and gives bureaucrats **expertise = their own independent power** — which is exactly what creates the principal-agent gap (agents may expand budgets/turf, or take bribes).
- **Iron triangle** — a cosy, closed policy loop of **bureaucrats + legislators + business** in one sector that serves the insiders and keeps everyone else out (see the Japan case: iron triangles + *amakudari*).
- Controls: **political appointees** (US ~6–8 per department; UK ~2 per ministry), specific legislation, **legislative oversight** (committees, hearings, budgets), courts — none perfect. **New Public Management (NPM)** (Reagan/Thatcher, 1980s): privatise, add competition, "customer satisfaction," flatten hierarchies — a UK 30-year study found a 1/3 staff cut but **slightly higher costs and slightly worse, less-fair service**.
- **Corruption**: two types — **bribery + rent-seeking** (using regulation for advantage instead of being productive); worse in **more-regulated, more-unequal** economies (rational-choice), or from postcolonial legitimacy deficits (**Ekeh's "two publics"** in Africa: a moral *primordial* public vs an amoral *civic* one). **Majoritarian** systems (clear responsibility) let voters punish it better. **Johnston's four syndromes**: *Influence Markets* (rich democracies — US, Japan) → *Elite Cartels* (middle-income — Brazil) → *Oligarchs & Clans* (Russia) → *Official Moguls* (poorest).

## Federal vs unitary systems

**Core**: **unitary** = the centre holds sole sovereignty (local powers delegated & revocable); **federal** = sovereignty is **constitutionally shared** with subunits — a built-in way to **limit majorities and protect minorities** (more veto players).

- **Why federate**: bring government closer (big countries); divide power (bicameral upper house + judicial review); protect ethnic/religious minorities (**Belgium** = federalism + consociationalism; **541 days** to form a government in 2010).
- Real power depends on **revenue control** and **upper-house strength**, not paper rules (strong **US Senate** vs weak German **Bundesrat**). **Symmetrical** (US) vs **asymmetrical** (special powers for some units). **Devolution** = reversible decentralisation in a unitary state (UK → Scotland/Wales/N. Ireland). Riker: federalism is inherently unstable (→ centralisation or secession).
- *Examples*: **federal** = US, Germany; **unitary** = France, UK, **Denmark**. In US federalism the **national** level holds war & foreign policy, coining money, admitting new states; **states** hold schools, public welfare, local law & order (the "**Hamilton** [federal] vs **Jefferson** [states]" division).

- **Federalism is only as real as the politics behind it** (revenue + party system, not paper): **Mexico** looked federal on paper but the **PRI** centralised everything via revenue until democratisation (2000) decentralised power to governors; **India** = *centralised* federalism (the centre can redraw state borders or impose "President's Rule"), decentralising since 1989 as state parties bargain in national coalitions; **Russia** = a federal **shell** — Putin gutted regional autonomy (appointing governors from 2004; centre took ~85% of revenue). Weak institutions can even preserve **subnational authoritarianism** inside a national democracy (Gibson).

## Cases & examples

Why these cases are here — **circle them back**. Each country shows **one system in practice** — and how the *same rules* give different results depending on the party system. Read each for: *which system · how power actually flows · the accountability/stability trade-off*.

| Case          | System                             | What it adds                                                     |
|---------------|------------------------------------|------------------------------------------------------------------|
| <u>UK</u>     | Parliamentary (Westminster)        | strongest PM — until Brexit broke party discipline               |
| <u>India</u>  | Parliamentary                      | same rules, different outcome via the <u>party system</u>        |
| <u>USA</u>    | Presidential                       | <u>separation of powers</u> → gridlock; strongest legislature    |
| <u>Brazil</u> | <u>Coalitional presidentialism</u> | strong formal powers ≠ effective power (30 parties)              |
| <u>Russia</u> | Semi-presidential                  | dominant president → <u>electoral authoritarianism</u>           |
| <u>Japan</u>  | (bureaucracy)                      | unelected bureaucratic power (iron triangles, <i>amakudari</i> ) |

- **United Kingdom — Westminster parliamentarism.** With a disciplined single majority, the PM is "*the most powerful democratic executive in the world*." But **Brexit** shattered discipline: May's deal was crushed, parliament seized the agenda, 117 of her own MPs voted no-confidence, she resigned — and **Boris Johnson became PM via a ~160,000-member party vote, no national election**. → *Parliamentarism; the majority-party mechanism (not paper rules) drives PM power; removal via no-confidence + party replacement*.
- **India — same model, different result.** India copied Westminster almost exactly, yet outcomes track its party system: one-party (Congress) dominance 1947–89 made PMs *less* constrained than British ones; post-1989 **coalitions** forced constant negotiation (3 PMs in the first 30 years → 12 in the next 30). → *Identical rules → different outcomes based on party number; multipartism pushes parliamentarism toward consensus*.
- **United States — presidential separation of powers.** The Framers feared a strong executive, so the president's *formal* powers are modest (veto, appointments with Senate consent, commander-in-chief); separation of powers + weak, polarised parties → **gridlock**, the norm under divided government (Senate 60-vote rule). Contested workarounds: signing statements, executive orders. → *Presidentialism; built-in veto players; the world's most powerful legislature (Congress)*.
- **Brazil — coalitional presidentialism.** The 1988 constitution gives the president **more** formal power than the US president (decrees, line-item veto, budget monopoly) — yet ~**30 fragmented parties** (Bolsonaro's own held <10% of seats) force presidents to build **9-party coalitions**, trade pork for votes (often illegally), and still face impeachment (**Dilma Rousseff, 2016**). → *Strong formal powers ≠ effective power; the instability Linz warned of*.
- **Russia — semi-presidentialism gone dominant.** The 1993 constitution created an exceptionally strong presidency (appoints PM — reject the nominee 3× and the Duma is dissolved; **decrees with force of law**).

**Putin** used it to turn a weak democracy into an **electoral authoritarian regime**. → *Elgie's warning: a president who can dismiss the PM at will removes the incentive to compromise and endangers democracy.*

- **Japan — bureaucratic power.** Japan's elite bureaucracy (recruited from Tokyo University law) drove the postwar boom and often *wrote* the laws, via **iron triangles** (bureaucrats–politicians–business) and **amakudari** ("descent from heaven" — officials taking jobs in firms they'd regulated). Scandals + stagnation eroded it; Abe's 2014 reform tripled PM appointment control. → *The principal–agent problem: unelected officials wielding real power.*

## Key terms

| Term                                  | Meaning                                                              |
|---------------------------------------|----------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Executive / Legislature / Judiciary   | Implements / makes / interprets the law                              |
| Head of state / Head of government    | Symbolic representative / runs the government                        |
| Majoritarian / Consensus democracy    | Power concentrated (few veto players) / dispersed (many)             |
| Veto player                           | Actor whose agreement is needed to change policy                     |
| Vertical / Horizontal accountability  | Citizens hold state accountable / institutions check each other      |
| Parliamentarism                       | Exec & legislature fused; parliament elects the PM                   |
| Vote of no confidence                 | Parliament's vote to remove the PM/government                        |
| Presidentialism                       | Exec & legislature elected independently, separate powers            |
| Separation of powers                  | Constitutional division of power among branches                      |
| Coalitional presidentialism           | Presidential system where the president must build a party coalition |
| Semi-presidentialism                  | Executive split between elected president + PM                       |
| Cohabitation                          | President & PM from different parties                                |
| Judicial review                       | Courts can rule a law unconstitutional                               |
| Common law / Code law                 | Precedent-based / written-code-only                                  |
| Principal–agent problem               | Agent's self-interest may not match the principal's                  |
| New Public Management                 | 1980s reform: privatise, competition, "customer" focus               |
| Unitary / Federal                     | Sole central sovereignty / sovereignty shared with subunits          |
| Symmetrical / Asymmetrical federalism | All subunits equal / some have special powers                        |
| Devolution                            | Reversible decentralisation in a unitary state                       |

## Exam pointers

- Reproduce the parliamentary vs presidential vs semi-presidential comparison cold — powers (fused/separated/split), how the executive is **chosen** and **removed**, term length, veto players, a case each.
- Explain parliamentarism (fusion, PM, no-confidence, dissolution) and presidentialism (separation, fixed terms, impeachment, gridlock) as opposite answers to *how executive power is checked*.

- Use **Lijphart's majoritarian ↔ consensus** + **veto players** to place any system, and **vertical vs horizontal accountability** to evaluate it.
- Deploy **Linz's "Perils of Presidentialism"** (dual legitimacy · winner-take-all · fixed terms) *and* the Cheibub counter — the set-piece stability debate.
- Show that **rules ≠ outcomes**: UK vs India (party system) and Thatcher vs Reagan (policymaking) are the go-to illustrations.
- Know **federal vs unitary** (+ devolution) as a majority-limiting / minority-protecting device.

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## ★ Fun facts & memorable details

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Sticky stats, dates & quotes from Lecture 4 (systems of government).

### Quotable / memorable

- Linz's famous article: "**The Perils of Presidentialism**" (1990). Cheibub's rebuttal: presidential systems "*tend to exist in societies where democracies of any type are likely to be unstable.*"
- The British PM with a solid majority is "*often called the most powerful democratic executive in the world.*"
- **Kenya (2013)** switched from a British-style **parliamentary** to a US-style **presidential** system with its new constitution — a live natural experiment.

### Striking numbers

- **Belgium 2010**: a world-record 541 days to form a government; **Sweden 2018**: 133 days.
- Votes of no confidence **succeed ~5% of the time**.
- **Boris Johnson** became PM chosen by **fewer than 160,000** Conservative members — no national election.
- **India**: 3 PMs in 1947–77 → **12** in 1977–2007 (multipartism = less stability).
- **Brazil**: 30 parties in the Chamber; presidential coalitions average **9 parties**; **60% of Congress under indictment** in 2016.
- **US Senate**: representatives of just over **10%** of the population can block a bill (60-vote rule); state representation ratio ≈ **66:1**.
- **Semi-presidentialism** spread from **10 (1990)** → **52 (2018)** systems; 16 are former French/Portuguese colonies.
- **Federal** countries ≈ **25**, but hold **>40% of the world's population**; 7 of the 10 largest countries by area are federal.

### Thinkers to name-drop

- Separation of powers ← **Montesquieu** · semi-presidentialism ← **France 1958 / de Gaulle** · code law ← **Napoleon** · majoritarian/consensus ← **Lijphart** · veto players ← **Tsebelis** · vertical/horizontal accountability ← **O'Donnell** · federalism-as-bargain ← **Riker**.

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## Lecture 5: Participation and Representation (FK)

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Required reading: OD ch. 6 (*Institutions of Participation and Representation*)

Theme of the lecture: Why do some citizens participate while others don't? Why are some interests represented while others aren't? We examine how different institutions — specifically electoral and party systems — shape political participation and representation.

## OD Ch. 6 — Institutions of Participation and Representation

Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 6.

### Chapter résumé

Looks at the three institutions through which democracies channel **participation and representation** — **electoral systems**, **parties/party systems**, and **civil society (interest groups)** — and asks which best represent ordinary and marginalised citizens. It opens with *why anyone participates at all* (a **collective-action problem**), then its analytic core: how **electoral systems** (plurality/SMD · majoritarian · PR · mixed) convert votes into seats and thereby shape the **number of parties (Duverger's Law)**, proportionality, stability, and the representation of women & minorities. It classifies **party systems**, surveys how parties mobilise (programmatic / clientelist / populist) amid a "crisis of party democracy," contrasts **pluralist vs neocorporatist** interest-group systems, and closes on the master **trade-off (Powell): diverse representation  $\Rightarrow$  clear accountability**.

★ The heart of the chapter: institutions decide who participates and whose interests get represented. The **electoral system** is the master lever — **SMD/plurality** squeezes politics toward *two parties + clear accountability but wasted votes*; **PR** opens it to *many parties + proportional, diverse representation but coalition instability* (Duverger's Law). Underneath sits one unavoidable **trade-off (Powell): broad representation  $\Rightarrow$  clear accountability/governability**.

**The red thread.** Two questions run through the chapter. ① **Why participate (or not)?** — voting is individually "irrational" (a **collective-action problem**), so *institutions* raise or lower the cost (PR & simple systems  $\rightarrow$  higher turnout). ② **Whose interests get represented?** — the **electoral system  $\rightarrow$  party system  $\rightarrow$  interest-group system** chain decides. For any case ask: **how do votes become seats · how many parties result · who gets left out (small parties, women, minorities) · and what's traded off (representation vs accountability)?**

### Key concepts / "modes" to use

- The electoral-system menu: **SMD plurality (FPTP) · majoritarian (two-round / alternative vote) · proportional representation (PR) · mixed/semiproportional**.
- **Duverger's Law** — SMD  $\rightarrow$  two parties; PR  $\rightarrow$  multiparty.
- **Party systems** — dominant-party · two-party · multiparty; **sociological** (cleavages) vs **institutional** (electoral rules) origins.
- **Mobilisation types** — programmatic · patronage/clientelist · populist.
- **Interest groups: pluralism** (many, neutral state — US) vs **neocorporatism** (few peak associations bargain with the state — Germany).
- The **Powell trade-off** — representation/participation  $\Leftrightarrow$  accountability/governability.

## Section-by-section main points

**Lecture frame (FK).** The lecture opens by asking *what representation even is* (**Pitkin**), then works through the institutions that produce it — **electoral systems** → **party systems** → civil society — and closes with **case studies** (UK, Germany, Japan, Brazil).

### | What is representation? — Pitkin's four views

**Core:** before asking *how* institutions represent, ask *what "representation" means*. **Hanna Pitkin** (*The Concept of Representation*, 1967) distinguishes **four** senses:

- **Formalistic** — the institutional arrangement that **authorises** a representative and holds them **accountable** (elections = the "before" and "after" of representing).
- **Descriptive** — the representative **resembles** the represented (shares gender, ethnicity, class) — "**standing for**" (the case for **quotas** / descriptive representation).
- **Symbolic** — the representative **stands for** the represented symbolically (a leader/flag people identify with).
- **Substantive** — the representative **acts in the interests** of the represented — "**acting for**" (the **delegate** [follow instructions] vs **trustee** [own judgment] debate).
- *Why it matters:* the electoral systems below are really machines for producing one kind of representation or another — **PR** boosts **descriptive** representation (more women/minorities); **SMD** emphasises the **formalistic** local link.

### | Why participate? — the collective-action problem

**Core:** voting is individually "**irrational**" (Downs) — one vote rarely decides anything — so participation is a collective-action problem that *institutions* must overcome.

- People vote anyway for **expressive/solidaristic** reasons, charismatic leaders, and to avoid the **emotional cost** of not participating (guilt, exclusion).
- **Institutions shape turnout:** complex systems depress it among the less-educated; **PR/mixed systems raise it** (fewer "wasted votes"); parties & interest groups lower the cost of finding and acting on your interests.

### | Electoral systems — *the core of the chapter* ★

**Core:** the electoral system is the master lever — *on what basis are you represented* (a **district**, a **party/idea**, or a **group**), and *how do votes become seats*?

| System                                                    | Votes → seats                                                             | Parties (Duverger) | Proportionality                                                                                  | Turnout | Women/minorities | Cases                                |
|-----------------------------------------------------------|---------------------------------------------------------------------------|--------------------|--------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|---------|------------------|--------------------------------------|
| <b>SMD plurality (FPTP)</b>                               | most votes in each district wins (no majority needed)                     | <b>two parties</b> | <b>low</b> (wasted votes)                                                                        | lower   | worse            | <u>UK</u> , <u>US</u> , <u>India</u> |
| <b>Majoritarian</b> (two-round / <b>AV</b> ranked-choice) | need <b>50%+1</b> → runoff or reallocate                                  | ~two blocs         | low-medium                                                                                       | —       | —                | France                               |
| <b>Proportional (PR)</b> — closed/open list               | seats = <b>vote share</b> (national/large districts, a <b>threshold</b> ) | <b>multiparty</b>  | <b>high</b>                                                                                      | higher  | <b>better</b>    | <u>Israel</u> , <u>Brazil</u> (open) |
| <b>Mixed / semiproportional</b>                           | SMD seats + party-list PR                                                 | multiparty         | high ( <b>compensatory</b> , <u>Germany</u> ) / medium ( <b>noncompensatory</b> , <u>Japan</u> ) | higher  | —                | Germany, Japan                       |

- **SMD/FPTP: strengths** — strong voter-representative link, single-party government (efficient, accountable); defenders also invoke **virtual representation** (co-partisans elected in *other* districts speak for you). *Weaknesses* — **wasted votes**, **disproportionality** (a party can win many seats on ~35% pluralities; a broad-but-thin party wins almost none), gerrymandering, fewer women/minorities. (*Empirically the SMD "closer link" is weak — Curtice & Shively found no real advantage in voter-rep contact.*)
- **PR: strengths** — few wasted votes, **higher turnout**, far **more women & minorities** (lists + quotas), more information/positions, more egalitarian policy (Orellana). *Weaknesses* — no identifiable individual rep, **coalition instability**, small extremist parties gain outsized leverage; **Kedar**: PR voters even vote for *more extreme* parties on purpose, expecting post-election compromise to pull policy back to the middle.
- **Mixed**: two ballots (a district candidate + a party list) — blends a personal rep with proportional fairness; **Germany's compensatory** version tops seats up to full proportionality, **Japan's noncompensatory** version keeps SMD & PR separate (less proportional). **AV/ranked-choice** wastes fewer votes than FPTP (Maine 2018 elected the first US Congress seat by AV).
- **Redistribution link (Iversen & Soskice — from Lecture 4):** PR → the middle class allies with the poor → **bigger welfare states**; majoritarian → middle allies with the rich → less. A key reason electoral systems shape *policy*, not just seats (the Sweden vs US welfare puzzle).

## | Duverger's Law — and its limits

**Core:** SMD/plurality → two parties (small parties get squeezed out and voters stop "wasting" votes on them); PR → multiparty.

- **But not deterministic:** it holds in *established* democracies; in **new/diverse** democracies voters aren't strategic (ethnic/identity voting persists), so FPTP can still produce many parties (Moser & Scheiner) — see **India**. And it can break even in old democracies (**France 2017**: Macron's one-year-old party upended a near-two-party system).

## Party systems

**Core:** classify by **number & strength**: **dominant-party** (S. Africa ANC — won every election) · **two-party** (US, UK) · **multiparty** (Italy — coalitions required).

- **Where party systems come from — two explanations:**
  - **Sociological:** parties reflect social **cleavages** — an economic **capital vs labour** split everywhere, *plus* a religious split in some places. Where *both* are salient → **multiparty**; where only economic → **two-party**.
  - **Institutional (Duverger):** rational politicians build parties to win *under the given electoral rules* — SMD squeezes toward two.
- **Bridging the "chicken-and-egg":** the institutional effect holds in **established** democracies but *not* in **new** ones, where voters aren't strategic (ethnic/identity voting persists, FPTP winners take seats on 20–30%) — Boix; Moser & Scheiner. **France** is the classic Duverger case (its two-round SMD pushed a fragmented system to ~two blocs, 82% of seats by 2012) — until **2017**, when Macron's one-year-old party blew it up.

## How parties mobilise — and the "crisis of party democracy"

**Core:** parties win support three ways — **programmatic** (ideas/ideology) · **patronage/clientelist** (material benefits for votes, via **brokers** — common in poorer/newer & statist economies) · **populist** (a personalist leader, "the people" vs "corrupt elites," crisis rhetoric, "bad manners").

- **Where parties sit — two ideology axes (FK):** the classic **economic Left–Right** (redistribution) *plus* the modern cultural **GAL–TAN** — **GAL** (Green/Alternative/Libertarian: progressive, cosmopolitan, pro-environment, individual rights) vs **TAN** (Traditional/Authoritarian/Nationalist). Today's populist/far-right parties (Farage, Salvini, AfD) mobilise mainly on the **TAN** end of this second axis.
- **Caveat on "programmatic":** **Achen & Bartels** ("folk theory" critique) argue voters mostly vote by **social identity**, not by carefully weighing ideas — so pure programmatic appeal is partly a myth.
- **Crisis of party democracy:** only ~20% trust parties (though ~80% value democracy); falling loyalty/membership/turnout, rising **electoral volatility**, single-issue/postmaterialist voting, and **far-right/anti-system** parties (nativism, post-2015 refugee crisis). Explanations: economic (globalisation, manufacturing decline); **dealignment** (voters detach from all parties) vs **realignment** (they switch); catch-all parties → "**cartel parties**" (Mair) colluding at the centre → lost efficacy.
- **US exception:** not dealignment but partisan **sorting/polarisation** (Abramowitz), racial realignment, and Trump's **status-threat** populism (Mutz 2018).

## Civil society & interest groups — pluralism vs neocorporatism

**Core:** beyond parties, organised **interest groups** (they *don't* seek office, unlike parties) represent society — in two rival models. Groups grew sector-by-sector: first **labour, business, agriculture**, then **women/minority** groups; in divided societies, ethnic/religious groups dominate (some, like the KKK, are internally *undemocratic* — a tension for democracy).

- **Pluralism (US):** **many** competing groups, a **neutral** state; easy entry & local control, but fragmented clout — and **business is inherently privileged** (Lindblom). **Schattschneider's** famous jab: "*the flaw in the pluralist heaven is that the heavenly chorus sings with a strong upper-class accent*" — i.e. who gets organised is skewed toward the well-off.
- **Neocorporatism / societal corporatism (Germany, N. Europe):** a **few large, hierarchical peak associations** the state recognises as *the* voice of each sector negotiate **binding** deals; more influence (esp.

for labour countering business) but **less participatory** (little incentive to form new groups). (*State corporatism = the mandated, authoritarian version — ch. 8.*)

- **Social-capital debate:** Putnam (*Bowling Alone*) sees civic **decline**; Skocpol adds that mass-membership bodies gave way to **managed advocacy**; critics (Dalton, "**Kicking in Groups**") reply that activity just **moved to new forms** (movements, single-issue groups).

## The master trade-off (Powell)

**Core:** systems open to **diversity** (PR · multiparty · pluralism) maximise **representation & participation** but blur **accountability & governability**; **majoritarian** systems (FPTP · two-party) do the reverse. *There is no free lunch — every design chooses a point on this line.* The chapter's most robust finding: **PR represents women far better than SMD** (India goes further with **reserved seats**).

## Cases & examples

Why these cases are here — **circle them back**. Each shows **one electoral/party system in action** and *who it represents vs leaves out*. Read each for: *which system · how votes became seats · who got left out*.

| Case           | Electoral system                   | Party system     | What it shows                                            |
|----------------|------------------------------------|------------------|----------------------------------------------------------|
| <u>UK</u>      | SMD/FPTP                           | two-party        | extreme disproportionality (UKIP 12.6% → 1 seat)         |
| <u>Germany</u> | mixed <b>compensatory</b> PR       | multiparty       | how mixed PR lets new parties (Greens, AfD) in           |
| <u>Japan</u>   | mixed <b>noncompensatory</b>       | dominant (LDP)   | more majoritarian; Duverger working haltingly            |
| <u>India</u>   | SMD/FPTP + federal                 | multiparty       | Duverger's limits in a diverse democracy; reserved seats |
| <u>Brazil</u>  | <b>open-list PR</b> (no threshold) | fragmented       | weak-party fragmentation (30 parties) + populism         |
| <u>Israel</u>  | pure closed-list PR                | hyper-multiparty | PR instability under extreme diversity                   |

- **UK — SMD/FPTP.** The paradigm two-party FPTP system: modest vote margins → big seat majorities → single-party government. But it's wildly **disproportional** — in **2015, UKIP won 12.6% of the vote → 1 seat**, while the **SNP won fewer votes → 56 seats** (geographically concentrated in Scotland). → *SMD/FPTP → disproportionality, wasted votes, majoritarian governance.*
- **Germany — mixed compensatory PR.** Designed after Weimar with a **5% threshold** + compensatory mixed PR → a stable multiparty system. The **Greens (1983)** got in *because* the semiproportional system let them clear the threshold (unlike Britain's Greens); by **2017** the two big parties fell to a record **54%**, and the far-right **AfD** won its first seats. → *Mixed PR sustains a multiparty system and lets new/ideological parties gain representation.*
- **Japan — mixed noncompensatory.** The **LDP dominated 1955–93** via factions & clientelism; the **1994 reform** (300 SMD + 180 PR, *noncompensatory*) pushed toward two parties — the **DPJ won 308/480 in 2009**, but the **LDP swept back in 2012** ("lucky, not popular" — a split opposition). → *Noncompensatory mixed = more majoritarian than Germany; Duverger's Law working haltingly.*
- **India — FPTP in a diverse federation.** FPTP "should" give two parties, but **huge diversity + federalism** yields many *state-level* two-party fights that aggregate into a **national multiparty** system (parties: 50 in 1952 → 342 in 2009). **BJP (Modi) 2014: 31% of the vote → 52% of seats** under FPTP. **120 of ~600 seats are reserved** for lower castes/tribes. → *Duverger's limits in a new/diverse democracy; reserved-seat representation.*

- **Brazil — open-list PR, no threshold.** No incentive for intra-party cooperation → extreme fragmentation (**30 parties by 2018**) and weak, local parties (a third of legislators switched parties 1989–95). Recession + the "car wash" scandal → mass protests → **Rousseff impeached (2016)** → outsider populist **Bolsonaro won 2018** atop a tiny party. → *Open-list PR's weak-party fragmentation + accountability failure + populism.*
- **Israel — pure PR.** The whole country is **one district**, a 120-seat Knesset, **3.25% threshold** → ~a dozen parties win; governments = a big party + 3–6 small ones, lasting ~2 years; **2019 produced three elections in one year.** → *PR's instability under extreme diversity — the cost of maximal proportionality.*

## Key terms

| Term                                             | Meaning                                                              |
|--------------------------------------------------|----------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Collective-action problem                        | Individuals rationally don't act (vote) though all suffer if none do |
| Electoral system                                 | Legal mechanism translating votes into offices/seats                 |
| Single-member district (SMD)                     | Each district elects one representative                              |
| Plurality / FPTP                                 | Most votes wins (no majority needed)                                 |
| Majoritarian / Alternative vote                  | Winner needs 50%+1 (runoff / ranked-choice)                          |
| Proportional representation (PR)                 | Seats = vote share (closed-list / open-list; threshold)              |
| Mixed / semiproportional                         | SMD seats + party-list PR (compensatory / noncompensatory)           |
| Duverger's Law                                   | SMD → two parties; PR → multiparty                                   |
| Party system                                     | Number & strength of parties (dominant / two-party / multiparty)     |
| Programmatic / patronage / populist mobilisation | Win support by ideas / material rewards / anti-elite personalism     |
| Interest-group pluralism                         | Many competing groups, neutral state (US)                            |
| Neocorporatism                                   | Few peak associations bargain binding deals with the state (Germany) |
| Peak association                                 | Body uniting a whole sector to negotiate with the state              |
| Social capital                                   | Networks + norms of reciprocity underpinning civil society           |
| Powell trade-off                                 | Diverse representation ⇔ clear accountability                        |

## Exam pointers

- Reproduce the electoral-systems comparison cold — how each converts votes→seats, its effect on the **number of parties (Duverger)**, **proportionality**, **turnout**, and **women/minorities** — with a case each.
- Answer both spine questions: **why participate** (collective-action problem; institutions shape turnout) and **whose interests get represented** (electoral → party → interest-group chain).
- State Duverger's Law and its limits (India; France 2017).
- Contrast pluralism vs neocorporatism (US vs Germany) for interest representation.
- Land on the Powell trade-off (representation ⇔ accountability) and the robust finding that **PR represents women better**; use **Iversen & Soskice** to link PR → more redistribution.

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## ★ Fun facts & memorable details

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Sticky stats, dates & quotes from Lecture 5 (participation & representation).

### Quotable

- Schattschneider (1942): "*Modern democracy is unthinkable save in terms of parties.*"
- Downs (1957): for most people, voting is technically **irrational** — the seed of the collective-action problem.
- Powell's master **trade-off**: representation/participation  $\rightleftharpoons$  accountability/governability.

### Striking numbers

- **UK 2015**: UKIP won **12.6%** → **1 seat**; the SNP won *fewer* votes → **56 seats**.
- **US 2012 House**: in the ten most gerrymandered states, Republicans won **7% more votes but 76% more seats**.
- **Israel**: whole country = one district; **3.25% threshold**; **three elections in one year (2019)**; governments last ~2 years.
- **India**: parties grew **50 (1952) → 342 (2009)**; **120 of ~600** seats reserved for lower castes/tribes; BJP 2014 = **31% of vote → 52% of seats**.
- **Brazil 2018**: its most fragmented legislature ever — **30 parties**.
- **Women in legislatures**: Nordic countries lead at **42.5%**; US House only **23.4%** (2019). Robust finding: **PR elects more women than SMD**.
- Only ~20% of citizens trust parties, though ~80% call democracy "a very good thing."
- **Maine 2018**: first US Congress seat decided by **ranked-choice** — Golden won 50.5–49.5 after trailing on the first count.

### Memorable

- **France**: the top two parties held **56% of Assembly seats (1973) → 82% (2012)** — then the system **collapsed in 2017** with Macron's one-year-old party.
- ~60 countries used FPTP in 2019 — almost all former British colonies; **Belarus** was the only continental-European one.
- The social-capital debate in two titles: Putnam's *Bowling Alone* vs its rebuttal "**Kicking in Groups**."

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## Lecture 6: Institutions and Institutionalisms (AUW)

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**Required reading**: Hall & Taylor (1996), *Political Science and the Three New Institutionalisms* · Busemeyer & Thelen (2020), *Institutional Sources of Business Power* (an HI example)

**Theme of the lecture**: the role of **institutions and structures** in political processes — how institutions shape the behaviour of political actors, and what drives institutional **change vs continuity** — focusing on the **rational-choice (RCI)**, **historical (HI)**, and **sociological (SI)** variants of **New Institutionalism** (with path dependence and institutional legacies as central concepts).

**Lecture frame (AUW)** — the essentials before the three schools

**Core: institutions ≠ organizations.** Institutions are the **rules/norms that enable or constrain actors**; organizations are **groups of actors**. (*Ayca's example: the Social Democratic Party is an organization; the constitutional & legal rules, its internal statutes, and the unwritten norms governing it — e.g. can an MP defy the leadership and keep their job? — are institutions.*)

- **The debate it settles: structure vs agency** — *what explains a political outcome?* New Institutionalism is the "revised" answer (behavioralism → institutionalist critique → New Institutionalism): **institutions structure outcomes**.
- **Why study institutions?** They have **profound political consequences** — e.g. electoral system → party system (majoritarian → two-party; PR → multiparty — Lectures 4–5); parental-benefit design → labour-market gender equality.
- **The definition of "institution" widens across the three schools** — this is the key organising idea:

| School                    | What counts as an institution                                                                                                                                                                           |
|---------------------------|---------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| <b>RCI</b><br>(narrowest) | <b>"Rules of the game"</b> — constitutions, laws, regulations, court decisions                                                                                                                          |
| <b>HI</b> (middle)        | The above + <b>procedures, routines, norms, conventions</b> (how things are done; SOPs)                                                                                                                 |
| <b>SI</b> (broadest)      | All the above + <b>symbol systems, cognitive scripts, moral/discursive templates</b> — " <u>frames of meaning</u> " (role of the state, national identity, <u>patriarchy</u> , institutional racism...) |

## Hall & Taylor (1996) — The Three New Institutionalisms

### Chapter résumé

Hall & Taylor show that "the new institutionalism" is **not one theory but three** — **rational-choice (RCI)**, **historical (HI)**, and **sociological (SI)** institutionalism — which arose in the 1980s–90s (all reacting against 1960s–70s **behavioralism**) yet developed **independently**, "paint quite different pictures of the political world," and rarely cited each other. They compare the three on **two questions fundamental to any institutional analysis**: (1) **how institutions relate to behaviour**, and (2) **how institutions originate and change**. Their verdict: none is wrong — each captures a **partial truth** — so they call for **cross-fertilisation**.

★ **The heart of the reading**: three schools answer the same question — *how do institutions shape political behaviour and outcomes?* — very differently. **RCI**: institutions are rules that structure **strategic interaction** among fixed-preference utility-maximisers ("calculus"). **HI**: institutions distribute **power** unevenly and lock in **paths** over time (eclectic). **SI**: institutions are **cultural frames of meaning** that constitute actors' very identities and preferences ("cultural"). The exam task: fill in the comparison table and use it to build *three competing explanations* for one outcome.

**The red thread.** Everything reduces to **two cross-cutting approaches** (Hall & Taylor's own device): the **calculus approach** (actors strategically maximise; institutions give certainty about others' behaviour; persist as a **Nash equilibrium**) vs the **cultural approach** (actors interpret via worldviews; institutions provide moral/cognitive templates; persist because **taken-for-granted**). **RCI = pure calculus** · **SI = pure cultural** · **HI = both**. For any theory ask: *calculus or cultural — and how does that answer "how do actors behave / what do institutions do / why do they persist"?*

## Key concepts / "modes" to use

- The three schools: RCI · HI · SI (+ the widening definition of "institution").
- Calculus vs cultural approaches — the master framework for *how institutions affect behaviour*.
- RCI toolkit: strategic interaction · collective-action dilemmas · gains from exchange · Nash equilibrium.
- HI toolkit: power asymmetries · path dependence · critical junctures · unintended consequences.
- SI toolkit: frames of meaning · logic of appropriateness · isomorphism · legitimacy.

## Section-by-section main points

### | The two archetypes — calculus vs cultural

*Core:* any institutionalism must answer three questions — *how do actors behave? what do institutions do? why do they persist?* — and there are two archetypal answer-sets.

|                                 | Calculus approach (→ RCI)                                                                   | Cultural approach (→ SI)                                                                               |
|---------------------------------|---------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|--------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| <b>How do actors behave?</b>    | Instrumental, strategic <b>utility-maximisers</b> ; preferences given <b>exogenously</b>    | Behaviour <b>bounded by a worldview</b> ; <b>satisficers</b> ; choice depends on <i>interpretation</i> |
| <b>What do institutions do?</b> | Provide <b>certainty</b> about others (information, enforcement); shape <b>expectations</b> | Provide <b>moral/cognitive templates</b> ; shape <b>identities &amp; preferences</b> themselves        |
| <b>Why do they persist?</b>     | They're a <u>Nash equilibrium</u> — deviating makes you worse off                           | <b>Taken-for-granted</b> ; one actor can't change a collective convention                              |

HI is eclectic — it uses *both*.

### | ★ The three institutionalisms compared (*the exam table — from the screenshot*)

*Core:* memorise this. To answer "why did outcome X happen?", read *across a row* for three competing explanations.

| Dimension                           | Rational Choice (RCI)                                                                                                                                       | Historical (HI)                                                                                                        | Sociological (SI)                                                                                                         |
|-------------------------------------|-------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|---------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| <b>Definition of institutions</b>   | Rules/procedures that structure <b>strategic interaction</b> (narrow)                                                                                       | Formal/informal <b>procedures, routines, norms, conventions</b> embedded in the polity/economy (tied to organizations) | <b>Symbol systems, cognitive scripts, moral templates</b> — "frames of meaning" (dissolves the institution/culture line)  |
| <b>Example they study</b>           | <b>US Congress</b> (committees, rules of procedure)                                                                                                         | <b>Cross-national public policy</b> (welfare states, labour, corporatism)                                              | <b>Organizational forms &amp; their diffusion</b> (why education ministries worldwide look alike)                         |
| <b>Institutions ↔ behaviour</b>     | <b>Calculus</b>                                                                                                                                             | <b>Eclectic</b> (both)                                                                                                 | <b>Cultural</b>                                                                                                           |
| <b>How do actors behave?</b>        | Fixed <b>exogenous preferences</b> ; instrumental, strategic maximisers                                                                                     | Both strategic <i>and</i> worldview-shaped (strategies can <b>ossify into worldviews</b> )                             | Socially-constituted interpreters; " <b>logic of appropriateness</b> " — what's "rational" is itself socially constituted |
| <b>What do institutions do?</b>     | Structure strategic interaction; provide info/enforcement → reduce uncertainty, enable <b>gains from exchange</b> ; solve <b>collective-action problems</b> | <b>Structure conflict</b> — privilege some interests, demobilise others; distribute <b>power unevenly</b>              | Confer <b>meaning &amp; legitimacy</b> ; constitute actors' <b>identities &amp; preferences</b>                           |
| <b>Why do they persist?</b>         | They're a <b>Nash equilibrium</b> (deviation costs you)                                                                                                     | <b>Path dependence</b> — groups develop interests "costly to shift"                                                    | <b>Taken-for-granted</b> ; can't be changed by one individual                                                             |
| <b>How/why do they change?</b>      | Deductive; <b>voluntary agreement</b> / competitive selection ( <i>weak on change — the "equilibrium paradox"</i> )                                         | <b>Critical junctures</b> (crisis/war) → <b>branching points</b> ; otherwise path-dependent                            | Adopt new <b>templates for legitimacy</b> (not efficiency); <b>borrowing/diffusion</b> ; can even be <i>dysfunctional</i> |
| <b>Particular focus</b>             | Strategic interaction; collective-action dilemmas; gains from exchange                                                                                      | <b>Power asymmetries; path dependence; unintended consequences; ideas</b>                                              | <b>Legitimacy; culture; isomorphism</b>                                                                                   |
| <b>Key concepts</b>                 | transaction costs, principal-agent, Nash equilibrium, gains from exchange                                                                                   | path dependence, critical junctures, unintended consequences, "mobilization of bias"                                   | frames of meaning, cognitive scripts, logic of appropriateness, isomorphism                                               |
| <b>Hall &amp; Taylor's critique</b> | <b>Thin/"simplistic" motivation</b> ; exogenous preferences; <b>functionalist</b> origins                                                                   | Vague on the <b>precise causal mechanism</b> ; too <b>inductive</b>                                                    | <b>"Bloodless"</b> ; <b>"action without agents"</b> ; misses <b>power</b>                                                 |

## Rational Choice Institutionalism (RCI) — the "calculus" school

**Core:** institutions are **rules that structure strategic interaction** among rational, fixed-preference **utility-maximisers**; they persist because they're an **equilibrium** and are created to **capture gains from cooperation**.

- Borrows the "new economics of organization" (transaction costs, property rights, principal-agent). Politics = a series of **collective-action dilemmas** (prisoner's dilemma, tragedy of the commons); institutions solve

them by providing **information + enforcement**.

- **Exemplars:** US Congress studies — **Shepsle, Weingast; Ostrom** on common-pool resources; **North** on economic institutions.
- **Best at:** precise, generalisable theory; explaining **why institutions persist**. **Weak at:** origins/change — its explanations are **functionalist** (deduce origins from consequences — but you can't, because of unintended consequences), **intentionalist**, **voluntarist** (understates power); and the **equilibrium paradox** (if the status quo is already a Nash equilibrium, why would anyone agree to change it?).

## Historical Institutionalism (HI) — power + path dependence

**Core:** institutions **distribute power unevenly** ("structure conflict to privilege some, demobilise others") and, once set, lock national development onto **paths** that are costly to reverse — change comes at **critical junctures**.

- Definition sits in the middle (procedures/routines/norms embedded in organizations); **eclectic** on behaviour (both calculus & cultural, integrating **ideas**). History = **long continuity punctuated by critical junctures** (triggered by crisis/war) that create **branching points**; between them, path dependence + unintended consequences dominate.
- **Exemplars:** **Immergut** (health-care reform), **Steinmo** (tax policy), **Hattam** (US labour), **Skocpol** (welfare states & state capacities); **Thelen** (how institutions evolve).
- **The most "commodious"** and realistic school, and the **pivot** between RCI and SI. **Weak at:** specifying the exact causal mechanism; too inductive to build systematic theory. (*This is the school Bussemeyer & Thelen exemplify — see below.*)

## Sociological Institutionalism (SI) — culture & legitimacy

**Core:** institutions are **cultural frames of meaning** (symbols, scripts, templates) that don't just constrain behaviour but **constitute actors' identities and preferences**; organizations adopt practices for **legitimacy**, not efficiency.

- Dissolves the **institution/culture** boundary (a "cognitive turn"). Actors follow a "logic of appropriateness" (what's socially appropriate), not pure calculation. Explains **isomorphism** — why organizations in a field converge on the same forms "regardless of local conditions," even when **dysfunctional**.
- **Exemplars:** **Meyer & Rowan** ("myth & ceremony"), **DiMaggio & Powell** (isomorphism / the "organizational field"), **March & Olsen** (logic of appropriateness), **Dobbin, Fligstein, Soysal**.
- **Best at:** meaning, legitimacy, identity, and the inefficiencies RCI can't explain (the "waiting at a red light with no one around" point). **Weak at:** power & agency — "curiously **bloodless**," can look like "**action without agents**."

## Change vs continuity — each school's answer (**AUW's deck; the Brexit test**)

**Core:** take one outcome (e.g. **Brexit**) and give **three competing explanations** — one per school.

| School     | Explains CHANGE by...                                                                                                                                  | Explains CONTINUITY by...                                                                      |
|------------|--------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| <b>RCI</b> | disrupted equilibrium; actors' <b>interests</b> (utility-max, cost-benefit); strategic action; <b>few veto players</b> (or in agreement)               | policy <b>equilibrium</b> ; <b>many veto players</b> (or in disagreement)                      |
| <b>HI</b>  | <b>critical junctures</b> ; unintended consequences; powerful <b>agenda-setters</b> ; institutional inertia                                            | <b>path dependence</b> ; <b>policy lock-in</b> ; institutional power vested in key actors      |
| <b>SI</b>  | <b>societal shifts</b> (materialism→post-materialism); a new <b>economic paradigm</b> (Keynesianism→neoliberalism); IR shift (multilateral→unilateral) | deep <b>taken-for-granted</b> structures; <b>national identities</b> ; nested power structures |

## Hall & Taylor's conclusion — cross-fertilise

**Core:** each school reveals a **genuine but partial** dimension of behaviour, so they should **borrow from each other** rather than stay in isolation.

- Who does what: **RCI** = precision & persistence (weak on motivation/change); **HI** = power & history (weak on mechanism); **SI** = meaning & legitimacy (weak on power/agency). HI is the **bridge** — its arguments translate into RCI terms yet open toward SI (actors pick institutions strategically, but "from a menu made historically available").
- Emerging syntheses they cite:** **Kreps** (corporate culture as an efficient supplement to monitoring); **Garrett & Weingast** (norms/ideas as "**focal points**" that select among multiple equilibria); **Scharpf** ("decision rules" [incentives] + "decision styles" [beliefs about appropriate behaviour]); **Bates & Weingast** (strategic interaction as **signalling games** needing cultural context). (*Caveat: they don't claim a full synthesis is yet possible — "there is much to be said for tenacious debate."*)

## Key terms

| Term                                | Meaning                                                           |
|-------------------------------------|-------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Institution vs organization         | Rules/norms that constrain actors vs groups of actors             |
| Calculus vs cultural approach       | Strategic maximising vs interpretation-by-worldview               |
| RCI / HI / SI                       | Rational-choice / historical / sociological institutionalism      |
| Nash equilibrium                    | Why institutions persist for RCI (deviation costs you)            |
| Collective-action dilemma           | Individually rational, collectively bad (RCI's image of politics) |
| Path dependence                     | Past choices lock development onto costly-to-reverse paths (HI)   |
| Critical juncture / branching point | Crisis moment when big institutional change sets a new path (HI)  |
| Unintended consequences             | Ubiquitous — why you "can't deduce origins from consequences"     |
| Mobilization of bias                | Institutions distribute power unevenly (HI)                       |
| Logic of appropriateness            | Act on what's socially appropriate, not calculation (SI)          |
| Isomorphism                         | Organizations in a field converge on the same form (SI)           |
| Frames of meaning                   | Symbol systems/scripts that constitute action (SI's institutions) |

## Exam pointers

- Reproduce the RCI/HI/SI comparison table — the exam's whole point (Ayca's table).
- Nail **institution**  $\neq$  **organization** and the **widening definition** (RCI rules  $\rightarrow$  SI frames of meaning).
- Use the calculus vs cultural distinction to explain *how* each school links institutions to behaviour.
- Run the change-vs-continuity table on one outcome (Brexit): **three competing explanations** (RCI equilibrium/interests • HI critical juncture/path dependence • SI paradigm/identity shift).
- Know each school's **signature critique** (RCI thin motivation • HI vague mechanism • SI bloodless/no power).

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## Busemeyer & Thelen (2020) — Institutional Sources of Business Power (*an HI example*)

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### Chapter résumé

An exemplary **Historical-Institutionalist study**: where does **business power** come from? The standard split is **structural** power (business's privileged position as investor — the exit/investment threat) vs **instrumental** power (lobbying, donations). Busemeyer & Thelen add a third, **institutional business power** — power that "results when state actors **delegate public functions to private business actors**" and, "over time, through **policy feedback and lock-in effects**," produces an **asymmetrical dependence of the state on business**. They prove it in **education/skill formation** (a "quintessentially public" area where you'd *least* expect business power) across **Germany, Sweden, and the USA**.

★ **The heart of the reading**: business power isn't a fixed feature of capitalism — it's **built by institutions over time**. Once the state hands parts of a public service to private actors, **policy feedback + lock-in** make the state **dependent** on them and the change **near-impossible to reverse**. This is *classic HI*: power asymmetries compounding through path dependence.

### Section-by-section main points

#### | The argument — a third kind of business power

**Core**: to structural + instrumental power, add **institutional business power** — endogenous to **past policy-design choices**, not a generic feature of capitalism.

- **Three types**: **structural** (investor's exit threat — Lindblom) • **instrumental** (lobbying/donations) • **institutional** (entrenched role in delivering a **public function**). They act as "**communicating vessels**."
- **Two conditions** set how strong institutional power is: **(1) the credibility of business's exit threat** and **(2) the depth of state dependence** (has the state lost the capacity to provide the service itself?). Both high  $\rightarrow$  power strongest.
- Once entrenched, institutional power grants business insider "**quiet politics**" access (Culpepper) — so it needs far less *overt* lobbying. The three cases are deliberately "**most different**" (Esping-Andersen's three welfare worlds  $\times$  Hall & Soskice's *varieties of capitalism*) to show a **common dynamic despite maximally different systems**.

## Three mechanisms → three countries

**Core:** the *same* dynamic (state shares a public function → feedback entrenches business → lock-in) plays out three ways across maximally different systems.

| Country | Mechanism           | What happened                                                                           |
|---------|---------------------|-----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Germany | <b>Delegation</b>   | state consciously shares regulatory space with employers (dual apprenticeship training) |
| Sweden  | <b>Deregulation</b> | state retreats from provision (school <b>vouchers</b> / for-profit "free schools")      |
| USA     | <b>Accretion</b>    | private actors <i>invite themselves in</i> (venture philanthropy, charter schools)      |

- **Germany — Delegation (dual vocational training).** Firm-based apprenticeships rest on **employer voluntarism** (~500,000 youths/year, ≈ the number entering university). **Highest** institutional power: both state dependence *and* exit threat are high. Twice (**1970s; red-green 1998**) governments floated a statist **training levy** + school-based alternative; both times employers threatened to cut training places and the government **backed down** — and by the 2000s **unions & Social Democrats had reversed** to defending firm-based training (preference **conversion via feedback**). → *Delegation + lock-in + preference change = HI.*
- **Sweden — Deregulation (school vouchers).** Early-1990s reforms broke a near-total **public monopoly**; public money now funds private "independent" schools. By 2014 **ten corporations held 30% of the market** (biggest: AcadeMedia, owned by VC firm EQT); ~85% of voucher schools are **for-profit** — a "welfare-industrial complex." The **2016 Reepalu** profit-cap proposal died after providers threatened to shut down; Reepalu himself: "*we'd be in an easier situation if this had been introduced twenty years ago*" (**lock-in spoken aloud**). → *Deregulation + self-reinforcing feedback (even unions flipped pro-privatisation).*
- **USA — Accretion (venture philanthropy & charters).** Wealthy donors (**Gates, Broad, Walton**) "invite themselves" into education, funding charter schools/CMOs. **High exit threat, lower state dependence** (private funds *supplement*). Charters ≈6% of US enrolment but **~95% in post-Katrina New Orleans**; **Gates ranked the most influential individual in US education policy — ahead of the Secretary of Education.** In the 2014 de Blasio vs **Eva Moskowitz** fight, Walton-funded groups bused parents to Albany and Gov. Cuomo vowed "*We will save charter schools!*" → *Accretion — instrumental power converting into entrenched institutional power.*

## Why it's HI — and how RCI/SI would differ

- **HI hallmarks:** **power** runs through the whole study (asymmetric state↔business dependence tilting "over time"); **historical legacies** (each country a longitudinal narrative); **path dependence & lock-in** ("reclaiming lost territory becomes more difficult over time"); **policy feedback; critical junctures** (German 1982 government change; **Hurricane Katrina** enabling New Orleans's charterisation).
- **RCI would say:** business power = a credible **exit/holdup threat** in a principal-agent game; delegation persists because it's **efficient** (lowers state costs) — but static RCI misses the *temporal tilt* and the change in actors' preferences.
- **SI would say:** private provision spreads because it becomes **legitimate/taken-for-granted** (Germans see employer involvement as "an asset"; Swedes internalise "free choice"; Gates's role "taken for granted") — an NPM/"choice" **template diffusing** (isomorphism) — but SI under-weights the raw **power** the authors foreground.

## Exam pointers

- Use this as your **worked HI example**: name the mechanism per country (**Delegation/Germany** · **Deregulation/Sweden** · **Accretion/US**) and show **power** + **path dependence** + **lock-in**.
- Define **institutional business power** vs structural vs instrumental, and its **two conditions** (exit threat + state dependence).
- Be ready to **re-explain the same outcome in RCI and SI terms** (Ayca's exercise).

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## Informal institutions (*AUW coda*)

**Core: informal institutions** = the "informal rules of the game" — "*socially shared rules, usually unwritten, created, communicated and enforced outside officially sanctioned channels.*" They can matter as much as formal ones (esp. in weak states) — and are **not necessarily undemocratic**.

- **Examples: *dedazo*** ("big finger", Mexico — the outgoing PRI president secretly picks his successor) · ***amakudari*** ("descent from heaven", Japan — retired bureaucrats get corporate jobs) · **clientelism** (Peronist Argentina). *Not* undemocratic: the **folkways of the US Senate** (Matthews 1959 — apprenticeship, courtesy, reciprocity, specialisation); pre-Erdoğan Turkish university-rector elections.

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## ★ Fun facts & memorable details

Sticky bits from Lecture 6 (institutions & institutionalisms).

### Quotable

- The framing line: "*political science today is confronted with not one but three 'new institutionalisms.'*"
- **SI's best point** (why we're not just calculators): "*anyone who has waited at a traffic light when no one else was around*" has to admit institutions work non-instrumentally too.
- **RCI's key logical error** (Hall & Taylor): "*one cannot safely deduce origins from consequences*" — because unintended consequences are everywhere.
- SI critique in three words: "*action without agents.*"
- **Reepalu (Sweden)**: "*We'd be in a somewhat easier situation if much of what we're proposing had been introduced some twenty years ago*" — path dependence, out loud.
- **Cuomo (US)**: "*We will save charter schools!*"

### Memorable

- The three schools "**developed quite independently of each other**," each "assiduously burnishing its own paradigm" — a paper about theories that ignored each other.
- **Germany**: ~500,000 start firm-based apprenticeships each year — about the same as start university.
- **New Orleans** after Katrina: ~95% of children in charter schools — the highest of any US city.
- **Bill Gates** was ranked the **single most influential individual in US education policy** — **ahead of the Secretary of Education** (who, at the time, was herself a venture philanthropist).
- **Institution ≠ organization**: the Social Democratic *Party* is the organization; the rules and unwritten norms governing it are the *institutions* — the distinction the whole lecture turns on.